WHO CONTROLS FOREIGN AID? ELITE VERSUS PUBLIC PERCEPTIONS OF DONOR INFLUENCE IN AID-DEPENDENT UGANDA

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Abstract

Does foreign aid enable or constrain elite capture of public revenues? Reflecting on prominent debates in the foreign aid literature, we examine whether recipient preferences are consistent with a view that foreign donors wield substantial control over the flow of aid dollars, making elite capture more difficult and mass benefits more likely. We compare elite and mass support for foreign aid versus government spending on development projects through a survey experiment with behavioral outcomes. A key innovation is a parallel experiment on members of the Ugandan national parliament and a representative sample of Ugandan citizens. For two actual aid projects, we randomly assigned different funders to the projects. Significant treatment effects reveal that members of parliament support government programs over foreign aid, whereas citizens prefer aid over government. Donor control also implies that citizens should favor foreign aid more and elites less as their perceptions of government clientelism and corruption increase. We explore this and report on other alternative mechanisms. Effects for citizens and elites are most apparent for those perceiving significant government corruption, suggesting that both sets of subjects perceive significant donor control over aid.

Introduction

Who controls foreign aid and how it is used? Academic disputes rage over what foreign aid allows politicians in recipient countries to do. For some scholars, aid enables political elites to buy votes, build militaries for repression, and enrich themselves through corruption.[2] Aid may thus undermine citizens' ability to hold political elites accountable for how public revenues are spent.[3] In this view, foreign assistance is often captured by powerful political elites in recipient countries, thus benefiting politicians and hurting citizens.

Alternatively, others argue that foreign aid can bypass corrupt political leaders and target the delivery of needed public goods directly to recipients even as it promotes civil society actors that can demand better governance.[4] Additionally, aid can enable government capacity building and contribute to the development of better-functioning institutions and thus push politicians to reduce corruption and mismanagement.[5] Understanding the incentives of recipient governments to use aid for their own political purposes, donors can target aid toward specific projects, impose conditions, and limit the fungibility of aid revenues.[6] By this accounting, foreign donors have considerable influence over the distribution of foreign assistance, thus bypassing elites and benefiting the masses.

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[2] Easterly 2006; Moyo 2009; Alesina and Weder 2002; Bräutigam and Knack 2004; Svensson 2000; Morrison 2009; 2012.
[3] Knack 2009; Ross 2004; Moyo 2009; Morrison 2009.
[4] Finkel, Pérez-Liñán, and Seligson 2007; Wright and Winters 2010; Mosley 2015; McLean and Schneider 2014; Bermeo 2016.
[5] Riddell 2007; Baser and Morgan 2008.
[6] Altincekic and Bearce 2014; Feyzioglu, Swaroop, and Zhu 1998; Bearce and Tirone 2010.

There is a great deal at stake in this debate. As much as $7.1 trillion in development assistance has flowed from developed to developing countries since 1945,[7] representing a meaningful share of inter-governmental financial exchanges. However, if aid — by propping up despots and enabling corruption — does more harm than good, as some scholars have claimed, donor governments should reconsider their aid practices and reduce their commitments. If aid, on the other hand, brings more benefits than costs, then continuing or perhaps even increasing foreign assistance would be advisable. In addition, our study suggests that how aid is delivered matters: conditionality, bypass, and monitoring may make a difference. Past aid scholarship has appeared to significantly influence major policy decisions at the World Bank in its move to randomized evaluations[8] and for the U.S. government in its creation of the Millennium Challenge Corporation,[9] among other examples. The current scholarly debate thus involves more than academic stakes.

We consider two important elements that have been overlooked to date. First, we focus attention on the perceptions of and preferences for aid of both political elites and citizens in recipient countries through parallel survey experiments with behavioral outcomes on nearly two-thirds of the Ugandan National Parliament and a nationally representative sample of Ugandan citizens. Ugandan elites and citizens experience the effects of aid projects continually due to aid's important role in the Ugandan economy. Examining the attitudes and behaviors of political elites

[7] Tierney et al. 2011.
[8] Tollefson 2015.
[9] Hook 2008.

— in this case members of parliament — is important given their policymaking powers and status in governing coalitions.[10]

Studying the opinions of ordinary citizens in semi-democratic, developing countries may require additional justification is also important, for four key reasons. First, seeking to prolong their rule and concerned that public protests or mobilization may threaten their tenure, many autocratic leaders — including Uganda's President Yoweri Museveni in the country under study here — pay close attention to public opinion in pursuing policies, be they domestic or foreign.[11] Second, citizens may hold information about the effects of policy on outcomes they value, so public opinion can reveal insights about the world that are otherwise unavailable. Third, even if citizens are misinformed, they predicate actions on their beliefs, so understanding public beliefs can illuminate political behavior. Fourth and finally, scholars have long decried the "broken feed-back loop" in which aid decision-makers in donor countries are disconnected from the ultimate beneficiaries of their bequests,[12] so asking recipient publics about their perceptions of aid takes a step toward repairing the faulty feedback system.

As we discuss below, different theories about the impact of aid depend on and make assumptions about elites' and citizens' attitudes, beliefs, and behavior. Examining these varying assumptions against evidence might yield a clearer picture about the role of aid. It should help us to understand under what conditions different theories of aid and its effects are more likely

[10] Bueno de Mesquita et al. 2003.
[11] Weeks 2008; 2014.
[12] Martens et al. 2002.

to operate. Hence, perceptions and preferences — especially as revealed by behavioral outcomes — matter in their own right.

To address the second overlooked element in prior studies, we propose a meaningful baseline against which to compare aid: government projects, which provide the most relevant alternative for providing public goods. Most theories of aid depend on expectations about domestic elites, arguing that they play a significant role in shaping how foreign aid and government programs affect developing countries. Yet, to our knowledge, no direct, systematic evidence exists that employs politicians as respondents reflecting on aid and similar government programs. Studies comparing recipient citizens' support for foreign- and government-sponsored development projects are likewise rare. Probing elite and mass perceptions about foreign and government assistance may therefore contribute significantly to understanding aid.

The expectations that guided us focus on the belief that *donors have significant control over the aid they provide*. Uncovering direct evidence for this belief is difficult given the complex set of actors and procedures in the long policymaking chain connecting donor allocation decisions to outcomes in recipient countries. Thus, we designed a study that might indirectly provide evidence for or against this belief by probing the attitudes and behaviors toward aid projects exhibited by both elites and common citizens in a recipient country. It is possible that donors have significant influence over aid and can channel and condition it with a meaningful degree of independence from recipient government manipulation. This is not to claim that donors completely determine the disposition of aid, but merely that they can channel and monitor it so that it aligns

more closely with citizen interests in the provision of public goods compared to government programs. This suggests very different expectations for elite and citizen perceptions of and actions toward foreign assistance. It also implies that citizens and elites most attuned to the likelihood of politicians' capturing public resources should especially differ in their dispositions toward aid. If this view is correct, elites should be unable to capture aid easily, so they therefore should less strongly support foreign aid and instead prefer government programs, which they can appropriate more readily. Citizens, on the other hand, benefit more fully from foreign assistance than government programs, so they should evince stronger support for foreign aid relative to elite-dominated government programs. And those citizens who perceive the greatest amount of corruption and clientelism should prefer aid the most.

This belief that donors control aid contrasts with an alternative conceptualization that *recipient elites largely capture foreign assistance*. This belief assumes that aid is highly fungible and can be used by recipient politicians as they will. Thus, political leaders should more strongly prefer aid because they can capture it like other non-tax revenues and use it for their own purposes.[13] Citizens, on the other hand, should not support foreign assistance because elites are capturing the aid, causing similar patterns as in countries with substantial non-tax revenues such as oil.[14] And those perceiving the most corruption and clientelism in government should be most opposed to aid.

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[13] Bueno de Mesquita and Smith 2007; 2009.
[14] Morrison 2009; 2012.

To uncover evidence reflecting on these alternatives, we designed two parallel experiments and executed them in 2012 in Uganda. The experiments contrast members of parliament (MPs) and citizen support for development projects in treatment conditions attributed to foreign donors compared to identical projects in a control condition in which no donor was explicitly mentioned and that most sampled Ugandans took to be the domestic government.[15]

In line with the expectations that donors have significant control over aid, we find that members of parliament are significantly more likely to support projects in the control condition rather than treatment projects identifying foreign donors. However, citizens are significantly more likely to support foreign donors, precisely the opposite of the elites. Effect sizes are generally modest and approach a ceiling, but the differences are significant statistically and robust across a variety of specifications.

We evaluate possible subgroup effects and the results suggest that both elites and citizens believe that donors have substantial control over aid and thus subjects behave accordingly. MPs who perceive greater government corruption are especially likely to prefer government projects over foreign aid, whereas citizens perceiving government corruption are significantly more likely to support the aid projects. We consider many alternative mechanisms, including that members of parliament simply see government funds as more effective, and provide evidence

[15] A minority of subjects believed the control condition was actually a foreign donor, but this works in favor of the null hypothesis of no significant difference between treatment conditions and control. The differences reported thus understate elites' and citizens' contrasting preferences for aid versus government projects, a result we detail in the robustness section.

that this is not the case. In addition to corruption and effectiveness, we also consider other mechanisms that might underlie these differences: partisanship, ethnicity, nationalism, incumbency, and a foreign reputation effect. In general, the subgroup results provide null or inconsistent evidence for these possible alternative mechanisms. Taken together, our results suggest that — at least in the minds of those with direct experience — aid may be less susceptible to political capture than government resources.

Theory

Sensing a diminishing utility in continuing macro-level debates over aid allocation and effectiveness,[16] scholars have turned to examining the specific micro-level political economies of aid in donor and recipient countries though notably with a conspicuous absence of data on political elites around which micro-level theories are built. We frame two positions in this debate, which represent opposite views of the relationship between donors and recipients. These are endpoints in the otherwise continuous bargaining relationship that exists between these two sets of actors.

One prominent set of beliefs argues that *elites capture aid.* This approach posits that donors provide foreign aid in exchange for policy concessions from the recipient government. When donors care most about the foreign policy behavior of recipient countries — e.g., their alliance behavior or trading relations, then the recipient government has enormous bargaining power.

[16] See, for example, Alesina and Dollar 2000 and Burnside and Dollar 2000.

Donors then must give aid without much concern for its use by the recipient. Donors must provide highly fungible aid such that the recipient political leaders who must implement these policy concessions will benefit. Aid thus becomes a source of fungible government revenue, like other non-tax revenues including oil — and with potentially similar negative effects on the economy and polity, as in the well-known resource curse.[17] By this accounting, donors provide aid in minimally invasive ways and benefit from recipient policy concessions.[18] This approach emphasizing donor self-interest is not without foundation; some research and conventional wisdom note that donors give aid for political over humanitarian reasons and therefore relinquish much control over aid delivery.[19]

For recipient leaders, fungible aid is a boon because they can capture the money and benefit directly; for recipient citizens, it is a bane because, as a result of elite capture, they fail to receive public goods and therefore suffer as a result. Prominent studies have held that external sources of money, such as natural resources and aid, enable politicians to entrench themselves rather than be held accountable.[20] By this logic, political elites in the donor and recipient countries are the major beneficiaries of aid, as aid increases their political longevity,[21] whereas citizens in poor recipient countries are the biggest losers, as mass publics are forced to accept policy concessions they oppose and to endure more corruption from their own leaders.[22] This approach

[17] See Humphreys, Sachs, and Stiglitz 2007; Ross 1999.
[18] Bueno de Mesquita and Smith 2007; 2009.
[19] Alesina and Dollar 2000.
[20] Bräutigam 2000; Smith 2008; Morrison 2009; Gervasoni 2010.
[21] Morrison 2009; 2012.
[22] Bueno de Mesquita and Smith 2009, 311.

suggests that the public and political leaders in recipient countries may have very different attitudes toward aid. Leaders should like fungible aid since they can direct it as they want, and publics, at least the majority of them, should be less enthusiastic since they benefit little.

Against this argument we contrast the approach that holds that *donors exert influence over the aid they provide*. This viewpoint attributes more bargaining power and different interests to donors and it is consistent with the fact that most aid is targeted for specific projects, has conditions attached to it, and often bypasses governments. This argument builds on multiple strands of prior work pointing to the possibility that donors are conscious of the potential for aid to be mismanaged and therefore direct, oversee, and channel the aid in ways that are more likely to bypass corrupt politicians and therefore to produce public goods in recipient countries. Donors understand many of the challenges they face in developing countries and try to act strategically to advance their goals. By this accounting, donors do more than seek policy concessions and they thus pursue aims beyond those implied by aid as an intergovernmental "bribe".[23] We concede that donors almost certainly give aid strategically at times for political ends.[24] However, many studies of aid allocation find that aid goes disproportionately to poorer and needier countries, which suggests that significant amounts of aid target poverty relief.[25]

Donors may be more interested in promoting domestic public goods, such as democracy and development, which may entail large domestic policy changes by the recipient government.

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[23] Morgenthau 1962.
[24] See Qian 2015.
[25] Alesina and Dollar 2000; Lee and Lim 2014; Fuchs, Dreher, and Nunnenkamp 2014; Bodenstein and Kemmerling 2015.

These goals may be much closer as well to the preferences of many citizens. To achieve their development aims, donors try to limit fungibility and target, commit, disburse, and monitor aid in ways that do not benefit leaders, but rather pursue broader goals including providing public goods. Thus some citizens, especially those perceiving the government to be corrupt and clientelist, may be supportive of conditionality as it promotes their preferred goals for the aid money. Donors can exert control in part by committing aid to specific projects, attaching conditions to the use of aid, employing elaborate procurement rules, and instituting strong accounting and reporting requirements for recipients.[26] Such rules make elite capture more difficult. In contrast to an approach emphasizing donor allocation of relatively unrestricted fungible aid, this line of reasoning sees donors actively using aid to provide public goods for recipients by targeting aid for particular projects, attaching conditions to aid, providing both non-fungible and fungible aid, altering channels of delivery, and even withholding (or threatening to withhold) aid in response to recipient leader decisions. In fact, at a broad level, Bermeo shows that donors' goals have changed since the end of the Cold War and that they are now more focused on development and democracy promotion. She demonstrates that donors pursue "strategic development" in purposefully allocating different types of aid to different types of countries, often targeting improvements in government capacity rather than providing narrow benefits to specific leaders.[27]

Even if aid fails to strengthen institutions or build capacity directly, donors may find alternative means to provide aid while avoiding capture by incumbent politicians. Dietrich shows that

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[26] Lamoreaux, Michas, and Schultz 2015.
[27] Bermeo 2010; 2011; 2016, 4.

donors strategically decide how much aid to give directly to governments and how much to bypass them depending on corruption levels and institutional capacity.[28] This "bypass aid" can support opposition parties, watchdog media, and civil society organizations that might effectively demand more accountability and that, evidence suggests, ultimately strengthens democracy.[29]

In strategically targeting and delivering aid, donors provide less fungible aid.[30] Indeed, donors appear to systematically emphasize less manipulable sectors when targeting aid to more-corrupt governments.[31] Thus, donors seem able to restrict aid in ways that stymie recipient politicians' self-serving designs.

Foreign aid — especially if it is monitored, has conditions attached to it, or is less fungible — may thus provide more public goods since politicians are less able to divert it to themselves and their allies.[32] Aid may not be, in fact, similar to other non-tax revenues such as oil. If donors exercise substantial control over aid, then it follows that we should expect leaders and citizens to view aid differently. In contrast to citizens who may prefer foreign aid, leaders who do not benefit as much personally may support aid less enthusiastically.

Extant studies address the problem from multiple methodological perspectives, but the debate remains unresolved. While our experimental approach cannot resolve the dispute, focused experiments using elites and citizens may contribute to this debate by providing evidence

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[28] Dietrich 2013; see also Acht, Mahmoud, and Thiele 2015.
[29] Finkel, Pérez-Liñán, and Seligson 2007; Scott and Steele 2011; Aronow, Carnegie, and Marinov 2012.
[30] Indeed, aid may be less fungible than originally believed. See Altincekic and Bearce 2014.
[31] Winters and Martinez 2015.
[32] Mavrotas and Ouattara 2006.

about who supports foreign aid or government funding for development projects, and their reasons for doing so. We readily acknowledge that our experiments do not and cannot provide direct evidence of donor control or elite capture. Rather, they are designed to provide important *indirect evidence* by revealing the attitudes and behaviors of different classes of subjects — elites and citizens — toward aid, the conditions under which they support foreign assistance, and thus their beliefs about whether or not donors exert some control over the aid or elites capture it. While this cannot definitively settle the dispute, it does advance the evidence base using a method with high internal validity.

If aid is captured, donors do not exercise control over aid, and recipient elites can use aid as they please, then politicians should prefer foreign aid over government-funded programs. Leaders will thus be freer to use the aid for their own purposes compared to tax revenues for which they must answer to the public.[33] If, on the other hand, foreign donors exercise more control over aid funds, by possessing the capacity to audit, constrain, and punish politicians who try to use aid for their own political ends, then we expect a different result: elites should prefer government programs to foreign aid projects. Political leaders should be keen to use available resources to maintain their privileged position and should therefore prefer the funding source with fewer constraints.[34]

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[33] To the extent that tax revenues are also not constrained by the public and aid is fungible with them, then elites should be indifferent between the two sources.

[34] See van de Walle 2003, 313. Similarly, what Rothchild (1986) called "hegemonial exchange" and Bayart (1993) "reciprocal assimilation of elites," clientelism pervades Africa since political stability there has often been constructed by using state resources to forge alliances across different social elites, often in the form of overt power-sharing arrangements (van de Walle 2003).

Preferences of citizens should move in the opposite direction. If donors exercise sufficient control over aid such that it reaches the citizens in greater volume and efficacy, then citizens should prefer foreign assistance over government spending. This finding should be especially likely for those who perceive the government to be very clientelist or corrupt. If, on the other hand, donors cannot impose control and aid is seen as reinforcing the problems characterizing all non-tax revenues, then citizens should more strongly support government spending over aid.

Along most major byways in Uganda, as in many developing countries, signs tying projects to foreign or domestic donors crowd the roadside and therefore would make the connection of aid to outcomes possible. Of course, citizens' perceptions may be mistaken about the effects of aid, and we are open to interpreting our data in this light. Nevertheless, even if citizens are wrong about aid, their perceptions matter in their own right. Voters have attitudes and beliefs first and then take actions or not based on those priors. Politicians likely have a better grasp of the effects of different sources of revenue on their political careers. Members of parliament often influence how aid is distributed in recipient countries. Combining studies of the two subject pools and comparing their attitudes and behaviors toward the same experimental conditions therefore should usefully illuminate our understanding of who controls aid.

The Ugandan Context

Context matters for the beliefs we are examining. In geo-strategically important developing countries and in ones that are democratic and well governed, prior research suggests that

donors should be less influential in and less worried about the recipient's use of funds. Channeling aid and monitoring and bypassing the government should be less possible and/or necessary. Uganda, like many sub-Saharan countries, does not fit this description. Uganda currently has a semi-authoritarian regime in which the government of Yoweri Museveni's National Resistance Movement (NRM) has retained power for 30 years.[35] In 2006, Uganda began holding multiparty elections; yet they have not been fully free and fair.[36] Scholars describe the party's ruling methods as relying heavily on patronage and clientelism to retain its control.[37] As one recent study points out, "In Uganda, the ruling NRM has established patronage networks throughout the country through the use of local government. The civil service is another such network of patronage, and perhaps the most important is the military. These clientelist networks, while consolidating key sources of support, at the same time undermine governance and erode the viability of institutions and leadership."[38] In 2012 when the study was fielded, Uganda ranked on the higher end of corruption scales, scoring in the 74th percentile (130th out of 176) on Transparency International's *Corruption Perceptions Index*.[39]

Uganda also receives substantial amounts of foreign development assistance; like most poor developing countries, it depends on two major sources of revenues: taxes and fees collected by the government and foreign aid. Since the 1990s, aid including off-budget sources has equaled approximately 70 percent of government expenditures. Moreover, aid encompassed about 15

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[35] van de Walle 2007; Greene 2010.
[36] Hyde and Marinov 2012; Cheibub, Gandhi, and Vreeland 2010.
[37] Green 2010; van de Walle 2003; 2007; Tripp 2010; Muhumuza 2009.
[38] Tripp 2010, 25.
[39] Transparency International 2012.

percent of total GDP for much of that period, though the share has declined lately. Our survey confirmed that citizens had general awareness of foreign aid. More than two thirds of subjects knew that more than 30 percent of the Ugandan budget comes from foreign aid; and the majority of subjects were aware of foreign aid flowing to their local areas.

Uganda is typical of African countries in terms of its democratization processes, current level of democratization, and executive dominance.[40] The Ugandan parliament has competitive elections and, while it is weaker than the executive, it is more than a rubber stamp and is a venue for important and lively debates.[41] Indeed the reading of the budget each year, which includes discussion of aid, is one of the most controversial and important matters for every MP. As the literature on parliaments in authoritarian systems has pointed out, these legislatures often are designed to impose constraints on the executive.[42] In these contexts then, donors are more likely to be active and concerned about their aid dollars and often unwilling to let recipient governments control the funds.

Research Design

To investigate competing beliefs about donor control versus aid capture, we conducted two different survey experiments in the field as well as two follow-up surveys. First, we carried

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[40] Bratton and van de Walle 1997; Resnick and van de Walle 2013. If we consider Uganda's level of democracy (Polity IV score) and degree of aid dependence (World Bank's World Development Indicator of net official development assistance per capita), Uganda is very similar to Ethiopia, Guinea-Bissau, Togo, Chad, and the Central African Republic. While there are other factors such as ethnic diversity, colonial history, and levels of economic development, similarity on these two key measures are important for understanding how generalizable our results may be.
[41] Humphreys and Weinstein 2012.
[42] Boix 2003; Gandhi and Przeworski 2006; Malesky and Schuler 2010.

out an experiment on a convenience sample of 276 of the 375 Members of the 9th Ugandan Parliament (the sitting legislature) and 78 former MPs from the 8th Parliament (total current and former MPs surveyed is 354). Although we sampled MPs by convenience, the distribution is very similar to the actual parliament at that time, which we discuss below.[43] Second, we conducted a nationally representative experiment on nearly 3,600 citizens in 42 of Uganda's 112 districts. We used a clustered random sample for the citizen survey to ensure regional and political representativeness. Both experiments were similar, but not identical, and were performed between June and October 2012 by local Ugandan enumerators. In September 2012 we conducted a smaller representative, follow-up survey of 460 citizen respondents, and then in the summer of 2015 a follow-up series of interviews with 28 MPs. To maximize the number of responses in the 2012 MP survey, we attempted to conduct a census of all current MPs and achieved a 72 percent response rate in the main survey. While key aspects of the experimental instruments were kept identical for each group to facilitate comparisons, the citizen survey was lengthier.

The samples of respondents reflect the underlying populations well, and assignment to treatment conditions is not predicted by available observables.[44] Key variables, such as education, gender, age, party, religion, and region, were not significantly related to whether citizens were assigned to a given experimental condition. For the MP survey, Appendix Table A1 presents descriptive statistics from our sample and from Parliament as a whole for gender, party, region and MP type, which generally matches the 9th Parliament as a whole. The distribution of MPs by

[43] See Appendix Table A1.
[44] See Appendix Table A2.

region is largely representative, though it slightly oversamples those from the Central region and undersamples those from the Northern region. Finally, assignment to treatment conditions among MPs is not significantly related to party, gender, MP type, or region, so there is good covariate balance across experimental conditions.

We chose to conduct our experiment on MPs as opposed to other government officials for a number of reasons. First, parliament is where the budget and the acquisition of aid (both budget support and project aid) is discussed and decided. Second, MPs very clearly had experience with aid both in parliamentary debates and in managing aid funds (53% of our MP interviewees said they had personally managed aid funds). Moreover, MPs value such projects in their districts; a majority of them in interviews said that they received praise and appreciation from citizens for such projects. Third, Uganda's parliamentary system fuses the executive and legislative branches, and thus we are able to also survey cabinet ministers who play an important role in decision-making.[45] In fact, the experiment includes 49 government ministers (this includes deputy ministers), 22 shadow cabinet members (the opposition's cabinet), and both government and opposition chief whips.

Interventions

The experimental manipulation presented each subject with a randomly assigned project description and a randomly assigned funder for that project. This between-subjects design is important for eliciting comparisons between government and foreign donor projects where direct

[45] However, we find no difference between ministers, committee chairs, and backbenchers.

comparisons might be too sensitive. Due to the sensitivity of the comparison, while we explicitly stated foreign donors in the treatment conditions, we used a control condition in which no donor was named to represent government-funded projects. In poor developing countries like Uganda, public goods projects like those we focused on have two major sources of funding: government revenues from taxes/fees and foreign aid. Hence the control condition could only be interpreted as one of these two sources. To the extent that individuals thought it was foreign aid, this made finding treatment effects for our experiment more difficult. But we felt this choice was critical since it enabled us to avoid social desirability bias related to naming a semi-autocratic government to its citizens and its own members of parliament and asking about support of that government's projects.[46] Our concern about social desirability bias was most acute for the MPs, and we felt we could not ask the public and MPs different questions and then credibly compare responses later. We also conducted follow-up manipulation checks, which showed that most subjects interpreted the control as the government. Moreover, if all subjects had interpreted the control as the government the results would have been even stronger. We provide an extended discussion and proof of this in the robustness section and in the appendix.

We randomly assigned the manipulation for *actual* pipeline projects, thus avoiding active deception. The projects were co-financed by the World Bank and the African Development Bank

[46] Concern for biased responses out of fear about the government seems fairly reasonable in a non-democratic context like Uganda. In round 5 of Afrobarometer completed in 2012, the same year as our study, 50% of the respondents said they did not feel completely free to say whatever they believe, and 1/3 said they felt some kind of pressure about whom to vote for. Moreover, 63% admitted fear of being intimidated in election campaigns.

and thus sponsored and managed by member-country governments, which allowed us to manipulate the name of the donor presented to subjects. We also randomly assigned the type of project: an infrastructure project (electricity) and an education project. In order to generalize more fully, we randomly assigned six different donors, including the four major multilateral and bilateral donors in Uganda and two additional multilateral and bilateral donors characterized generically. MPs, in order to increase the number of observations, were presented with and asked to express their support in various ways for both the electricity and education projects individually (and in random order) but only one donor. Citizens received only one of the two possible projects.

To achieve greater generalizability, we used two different project types and six different foreign donor types. The four specific donors named — the World Bank, the African Development Bank, the United States, and China — are the most active in Uganda and accounted for 54% of total aid disbursements. We also chose the electricity and education projects because they represent the types of projects that can be given selectively to constituencies that support politicians. For the mass survey, we randomly assigned the donor and the project type. Neither project type in the mass survey was significantly preferred over the other in the between-subjects design, which may reflect the fact that both types of projects are desperately sought after in Uganda. Because there were no significant differences between project types and among foreign donors, we focus on the difference between all aid donors and the control condition, which most subjects took to be the government.

Our framing question read, “The Electricity Sector Development Project will improve the reliability of and increase access to electricity. One major aspect of the project is to extend electricity to those who do not yet have access to it. The project may require your community to provide funding for maintenance in the future. [This project will be funded by the {RANDOMLY ASSIGNED FUNDER}.] How much would you support this project?” The text for the education project is in the appendix.

We included the sentence about future expenses (“may require your community to provide funding…”) to increase the respondents’ sense that this project might cost them in the medium and long term to support it. Given that aid may be perceived as “free money” whereas government programs may imply increased taxes, we were concerned that offering a project without any noted costs might lead all subjects to support it. A skeptic might worry that the added cost condition is not sufficient to overcome a bias toward “free” resources, which is a reasonable concern that we took measures to address as detailed in the robustness section.

Alternatively, in the MP experiment, the funding organizations we randomly assigned were the World Bank, the Government of the United States, a generic multilateral institution (“an international organization funded by many countries”), a generic bilateral agency (“a single foreign country”), and No Donor, in which we omitted the sentence indicating which agency was funding the project and served as the control condition. In the mass experiment, we also included the African Development Bank and the Government of China because the larger subject pool

enabled greater statistical power to probe the effects of additional treatment conditions.[47] These four donors represent the majority of aid projects in Uganda, and the inclusion of the generic bilateral and multilateral donors allows us to effectively tap preferences generally toward any foreign aid donor that might come to subjects' minds.

In the control condition, we assumed recipients would associate this with domestic government spending. We mentioned nothing about foreign aid in this version of the survey. We did the same for the MPs to avoid social desirability bias because we feared that government MPs might feel they *should* claim to support projects by the government no matter what they believed. But as we describe below, this design choice actually works in favor of the null hypothesis of no difference between treatment and control; and therefore our results understate the full extent of treatment effects, as shown in the robustness section below.

Further, our intervention focuses on one type of aid: project aid. Project aid is much more infungible and channeled than budget support. It is the most common type, it constitutes the overwhelming monetary share, and it is the most visible to citizens and thus would maximize our ability to obtain informed preferences regarding aid. According to the AidData information base, between 2000 and 2012 Uganda received 157 budget support grants and loans summing to $3.2 billion. Over the same period, the country was host to 16,019 aid projects summing to $24.5 billion in total aid. This suggests that budget-support aid in Uganda constitutes 1 percent of the count, but 13 percent of total Ugandan aid. This is roughly on par with the rest of sub-Saharan

[47] We also tested the effect of individual donors. We estimated difference in means tests and across all groups; there is never a consistently significant effect between donors across outcome measures.

Africa, which received 3,811 budget support grants and loans for $57.5 billion in relation to 352,839 projects that totaled $615 billion. Budget support in the region thus comprised 1 percent of the count but 9 percent of the money.[48] All donors to Uganda give project aid, while only some give budget support. We thus chose to use projects in our experiment so that we could explore attitudes toward all types of donors.[49]

Outcomes

To measure the outcome of support or opposition for the foreign- or domestic-funded projects, we asked all respondents to first express their level of support, then to report to us their willingness to convey their support to a higher authority (Party leader for MPs, and Local Council official for citizens), sign a petition voicing their support, and actually sign the petition.[50]

MPs were asked to express their willingness to coordinate with peers in support of (or in opposition to) the project, tell constituents about the project, rally locals in support of (or in opposition to) the project, and sign a letter to the President in support of or opposition to the projects. Citizens, but not elites, were also asked if they were willing to send a text message (SMS) and to actually send the SMS in support (or not) of the project.

Because the MPs were presented with both projects, we have two observations for each, except the petition to the president. Each MP was asked to sign a single petition that reported

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[48] Tierney et al. 2011.

[49] Project aid and budget-support aid might have different political effects, with budget support being more corruptible than project aid. See Tripp 2013; Gazibo 2013.

[50] Full text of the petition is included in the Appendix. The petition only asks them to sign without specifying a foreign donor or government.

their level of support for both projects to the President, thus we have one observation for each MP on this outcome. This design choice was made to reduce the burden on the MPs and to lessen redundancy of sending two nearly identical letters to the president. Donors were independently assigned to MPs such that MPs could receive the same or different donors across the two conditions. These various measures of support present the respondents with varying levels of cost (attitudinal vs. behavioral responses) and are used as the key outcome variables to gauge support for projects across treatment arms.

Results

Do people hold beliefs consistent with a view that donors exert control or aid is captured? We ask whether MPs and citizens are more supportive of government programs or foreign aid projects and compare their responses. We also consider possible mechanisms that could explain the overall trends in preferences. The donor-control argument suggests that perceptions of government corruption and clientelism should be most telling.

Differences across groups

Figure 1 reports the results from difference-in-means tests comparing levels of support under all of the aid treatment conditions compared to the control condition for MPs and masses. Appendix Table A3 presents the numerical results.[51] Panel A reports outcomes that were measured for all respondents (plus the SMS and Presidential Letter outcomes for citizens and MPs,

[51] Using randomization inference, our results are almost identical and are available from the authors.

respectively), and Panel B reports outcomes for those only measured for MPs. These overall results show that with only one exception, MPs are consistently more supportive of government projects than foreign aid. This difference in support is significant in 3 of the 9 outcomes, and treatment effects range from less than 1 to 12 percentage points.[52]

[FIGURE 1 ABOUT HERE]

Table A3 also shows that citizens consistently prefer aid over government projects; this difference in support is significant in 5 of the 6 outcomes, including the behavioral outcomes. The treatment effects range from 2 to 4 percentage points, which are modest but nonetheless significant statistically. These smaller substantive differences may result from strong ceiling effects given that the projects are extremely popular and therefore clustered near the upper bound of 100 percent support.

[FIGURE 2 ABOUT HERE]

When we consider only those who passed our manipulation checks, our results are even stronger, as Figure 2 shows. These are the citizens who understood the experiment. We did not do manipulation checks on the MPs out of sensitivity to their positions. For those who passed the manipulation checks, all but one of the treatment effects range from 7 to 15 percentage points. Because dropping subjects that did not pass the manipulation checks affects the representativeness of the sample,[53] we calculated the complier average causal effects (CACE). To calculate

[52] The results reported for MPs in Table A3 include both observations. To account for dependence across observations, we conducted logistic regression analyses and clustered on the MP. In doing so, the significance levels for the three outcomes significant in difference-in-means tests attenuate some, but are broadly similar. Moreover, we included only one observation per MP (or used randomization inference) and see similar results.
[53] Berinsky, Margolis, and Sances 2012.

CACE,[54] we use a 2-stage least squares model. Because we have information from the manipulation check that helps us understand better what people perceived when they received the control or treatment, we can use that check as a measure of compliance. We use assignment to treatment as an instrument to predict compliance (perceptions in the manipulation check), which in turn predicts level of support for aid vs. government assistance.[55] The results are reported in the lower portion of Table A4 and are qualitatively the same as those in the baseline intent-to-treat model. We use the full sample for the rest of the discussion, but all our results — available from the authors— hold for the group that passed the manipulation checks as well.

Why do these differences appear?

These findings seem to be consistent with a view that donors have substantial control over aid. So we next ask what mechanism might account for these differences. To provide a plausible explanation, a subgroup mechanism needs to differ substantively between the masses and MPs, to explain the differences between the treatment and control within each subgroup, and most of all to account for the differences between treatment and control across the elites and masses. The logic of donor control implies that perceptions of government corruption and clientelism ought to be most associated with and magnify the effects observed above. We also explore

[54] Gerber and Green 2012.

[55] The manipulation check allows us to distinguish those that received the treatment and thought it was the treatment (complier-treated), received control and thought it was control (complier-control), received treatment but thought control (never-takers), and received control but thought treatment (always takers). Some respondents answered "Don't Know" in the manipulation check rather than offer the name of a specific donor or "None" for control. As no specific entity was named in the control condition, we classified the "Don't Know" responses along with the "None".

numerous other possibilities – foreign reputation, partisanship, ethnicity, nationalism, government incumbency bias, parliamentary leadership, MP socio-demographics, MP perceptions of government effectiveness – and report on them in detail in the appendix.[56] None of these additional mechanisms received consistent or strong support, in contrast to perceptions of corruption and clientelism, which did find substantial support. For the perceptions of clientelism and corruption mechanism we report results below; we first rule out a number of other alternative mechanisms.

Ruling out Some Possible Mechanisms

Multiple alternative mechanisms reported in the appendix are worth discussing here. First, the differences may arise due to MP demographics. It is possible that the results we observe are driven by the fact that MPs are different in terms of class, wealth, education, and status. Simply by being elite, one could develop a different perspective on development funding. To address this concern, we split the mass sample into two demographic categories – high and low – and conducted the same analysis on the subgroups. The high types are those who are demographically similar to MPs (i.e., pay taxes, are highly educated, urban, well informed), and we find no significant differences in preferences across these two sub-samples of citizens.[57] It is thus unlikely that demographic factors are driving our results.

Another alternative story about MPs could be that backbenchers differ from leaders. Leaders in parliament could prefer aid over government funds because they are the ones who

[56] Figures A1-A14.
[57] See Appendix Figures A13 and A14.

can capture foreign aid, regardless of donor control. We test whether parliamentary leaders have significantly different preferences for government and/or donor funds than the rank and file. Appendix Figures A11 and A12 show that while backbenchers do not have a clear preference for one form of funds over another, MPs in the leadership are more willing to sign both the donor and president petitions in support of the government control condition, and thus they have stronger preferences for government, not aid funds. In his article, Good shows that one reason MP backbenchers may have less strong preferences regarding fund type is because they have a harder time getting access to government funds than MP leaders do.[58] Thus, it does not appear to be the case that parliamentary leaders support aid because they can capture it.

Another alternative is that MPs who support government funding over aid funding might do so as a result of positive views of the effectiveness of government funding in comparison with aid funding. It could be that MPs differ from the public in that they generally find the government to be more effective. Our survey and experiment provide no support for this claim. MPs on average do not, in fact, hold the view that government-funded projects are superior. From the survey we find that only 16% of MPs reported that government funds, compared to aid funds, are more likely to go to the most needy, are more effective and less wasteful, are better at meeting the needs of constituents, and that government funds are more transparent. We find that 67% of MPs have a more positive view of government on at least one of these outcomes, while 84% have a more positive view of aid donors on at least one measure. When asked who they think would

[58] Good 1994.

be the most effective in carrying out the electricity or education project, only 23 percent of MPs named the Ugandan government. Moreover, roughly 80 percent of MPs thought foreign aid had a positive effect on the government and their constituents. Finally, MPs trust foreign donors more than even the masses do.[59] Therefore, MPs actually tend to have less confidence in the efficacy of government-funded projects compared to foreign aid, even though they tend to more readily support government programs.

It may be, however, that MPs who believe the government does a better job of managing projects are the ones who support the government most and thus are driving the results. In order to explore this idea, we examine the subgroup effects of those MPs who think the government is better at enacting public goods projects compared to those who think foreign donors are better. We tested this possibility and find no evidence in support of this alternative. See Appendix Figure A15 and Tables A7-A10.

We also consider whether partisanship could be driving the observed effects. The subgroup analysis contingent on party support (NRM vs non-NRM) shows that opposition-party supporters in the citizenry are significantly more likely to endorse and act in favor of aid projects than the government condition. But we emphasize that, while this is true for citizens, among MPs it is the opposition-party members who most strongly support projects in the government con-

[59] See Appendix Table A11.

dition, against the expectations that governing-party NRM MPs would most strongly support projects assumed to come from government. This evidence works against the argument that party affiliation is the key conditioning factor.

Mechanisms Implied by Donor Control Theory

The donor control argument implies that MPs should have a weaker preference for funds that donors can control, but a stronger preference for funds that are not as easily controlled by external actors. We first compared MPs and masses on whether they believe that the conditions donors impose on aid help or hurt Uganda and find that the public sees conditions as helping the country, but MPs see them as hurting, thus suggesting that MPs may not see foreign aid as easy to capture.[60] We unpacked this through qualitative interviews with 28 MPs in which we asked MPs with whom they would prefer to implement the education or electricity project (where the funder was not specified). Fifty-nine percent said they would prefer to work with the government to implement the project. Of these MPs, many directly referenced the lack of conditionality and greater control over government projects. One MP said that s/he would rather work with the government on implementing the project because "one would be sure of the project and there could be no conditionalities." An overwhelming majority of these MPs who preferred that the government implement the project said aid is more constrained (14 of 16; 88%) and that aid has more rules and regulations (15 of 16; 94%). Thus, the same MPs who prefer government funding

[60] See Appendix Table A12.

of a project are also overwhelmingly the same MPs who say aid projects have too many conditions and are too constrained. These views support the idea that donors have significant control over aid.

A second, more direct way to consider implications that donors control aid is to examine perceptions of clientelism and corruption, which may shape support for foreign assistance vs. domestic programs. Evidence in favor of the corruption and clientelism mechanism would indicate that citizens who believe that the government is corrupt and clientelist would prefer foreign aid projects as donors can exercise more control and enable effective aid delivery. MPs should have the opposite preference. When politicians see corruption in government it may be a boon to them personally or electorally, and hence they may prefer government projects because they provide an easier way to avoid donor control and instead access money for their own interests.

In the original survey, we asked both MPs and citizens whether government funds are most likely "to benefit government officials and their political allies" or "help those most in need" to capture aspects of both clientelism and corruption (using money to help friends *and* themselves). Both are intimately linked concepts in Africa because corruption largely sustains clientelism.[61] We see a very large difference between the public and MPs in their perceptions of corruption and clientelism: 75 percent of the public believes that current government leaders take government money to benefit themselves and their friends rather than everyone in the

[61] Szeftel 2000.

country, while only 35 percent of the MPs agree with this statement. We therefore use this question to divide the sample into those who see government funds as more susceptible to capture and abuse and those who do not.

Although the corruption question may be vulnerable to social desirability bias, further analysis mitigates the concern. If some MPs are more susceptible to social desirability pressures, then we should expect a strong positive correlation between low perceptions of corruption and other questions reflecting socially desirable responses, such as reporting more visits to the MP's constituency, perceiving a good economy, and claiming better attendance at plenary sessions of parliament. However, answers to these questions are never strongly and positively correlated with low corruption perceptions. There is a weak negative correlation (Pearson's *r*) between low corruption reports and claiming more days spent in the MP's constituency each month ($r=-0.12$; $p=0.00$). There is a weak positive correlation between low corruption reports and maintaining that the national economy is in at least a "good" condition ($r=0.10$; $p=0.01$). Finally there is a weak negative correlation between low corruption reports and declaring higher rates of attendance at plenary sessions of parliament ($r=-0.07$; $p=0.30$). There seems to be no consistent social desirability bias.

The analysis for MPs shows that MPs who believe government funds are more likely to be used for corruption and clientelism are significantly more likely to prefer government-funded

projects.[62] For 5 of the 9 outcomes, MPs who see government funds as more corrupt and clientelist are significantly more likely to prefer government funds. Importantly, these effects are strongly significant for the behavioral outcomes. The treatment effects range from 4% to 19%, the latter of which appear to be substantial effect sizes. When we limit the analysis to one observation per MP, the results are similarly strong. In 4 of the 9 conditions, including the petition to the president outcome, the results are substantively and statistically strong (Figure 3).

[FIGURE 3 ABOUT HERE]

Conversely, the difference in support for aid and government projects is not statistically significant for MPs who do not perceive significant corruption and clientelism.[63] This suggests that the MPs who see few avenues for corruption and clientelism express no preference for government-funded projects over aid. One plausible interpretation of these results suggests that if the MP cannot capture some of the funding, then s/he does not manifest a clear preference toward such projects.

The results in Figure 3 and Appendix Table A6 report the difference-in-means tests and support the claim that citizen support for aid is also conditional on their perceptions of corruption and clientelism, but in the opposite direction. Citizens who believe that government funds are used for corruption and clientelism are significantly more likely to support aid over government projects for 3 of the 6 outcomes (4 of the 6 at the 0.1 level). Among subjects who do not perceive

[62] Reported in Figure 3 and Appendix Table A5.
[63] This is true for all outcome measures; see Appendix Table A5.

the corrupt use of government funds, there are no significant differences. See also Appendix Tables A15-A16. These results are even stronger if we use only those who passed our manipulation checks. The analysis in Figure A18 of the appendix shows that for all but one outcome, the results are substantively and statistically strong for those passing the manipulation check. To provide context we further considered who among the masses and MPs perceives corruption. We estimated models that use various attributes of citizens and MPs to predict perceptions of corruption in Appendix Tables A13 and A14 and discuss those results there.

It is interesting to note that we do not find differences among donors for either the public or MPs. Other studies have speculated that multilateral aid donors might differ from bilateral ones.[64] We examined two bilateral aid donors (USAID and China) and two multilateral ones (World Bank and African Development Bank) plus a generic multilateral and bilateral aid prompt. We found no consistent and significant differences among the public or MPs in their views of these donors, as we show briefly in Table A11 in the appendix. Both sets of donors try to maintain control over aid, often in distinct ways: USAID through independent contracting and the World Bank through stringent procurement and accounting rules. Knowledge does not appear to mediate this result. MPs who are aware of aid also showed little knowledge of the purported differences among donors, and this casts doubt on the existence of such differences; second, the public was very knowledgeable about politics in general, making it harder to dismiss their lack of knowledge about aid.

[64] Alesina and Dollar 2000; Findley, Milner, and Nielson 2016.

In sum, this analysis provides support for the argument that citizens support aid over government programs conditional on their perceptions of corruption and clientelism. Further, we find that citizens do consider corruption a bad thing: people who perceive there to be more corruption are significantly less likely to trust parliament, their MPs, and the president (effects are significant at the 0.01 levels).

These analyses offer some evidence that political elites, including the parliamentary leadership, may believe that government funds are more susceptible to clientelism and corruption and therefore prefer such funding. Ordinary citizens who perceive corruption and clientelism in government behave in ways that suggest they see aid-funded projects as a more preferred mechanism than government action to obtain the public goods that they so desperately want. These findings are consistent with the belief that donors exercise significant control over aid.

Robustness

Here, we discuss two important aspects of our experimental design. First, we discuss the cost condition, which addresses the difference between "tax-based" government projects and foreign-funded aid projects even though, as we argue below, this characterization is not accurate in the context of the study. Second, we discuss the fact that the control condition does not explicitly name the government as the funder but is nevertheless interpreted as the government.

Taxed Government Projects versus Free Aid Projects: A False Dichotomy

A first design objection might be that the public prefers aid because it is viewed as free, whereas government projects require citizens to pay taxes. We do not believe this is the factor

driving our results for several reasons. First, we added the cost statement to both the treatment and control conditions, so that individuals are aware that any project may require local funds.

Second, we undertook a follow-up study in September of 2012 in which we recruited an additional 460 subjects and randomly assigned half to receive the cost statement in association with one of the two randomly assigned project descriptions. The cost statement had no significant treatment effect on subjects' support. This may be either because the cost statement was too weak to produce treatment effects or because subjects were indifferent to costs for projects they feel they desperately need. While the cost statement may be weak, multiple reasons lead us to believe that citizens are relatively indifferent to costs for public goods.

First, subjects likely do not see government projects as costly to themselves any more than foreign aid is costly. The vast majority of Ugandans — 86 percent in our nationally representative subject pool — fall below the earnings threshold for paying income tax, which is roughly $600 per year. As Martin and Fjeldstad and Therkildsen note, Ugandan tax rates have been reduced recently. Most Ugandans also do not pay indirect taxes.[65] Eighty percent of Ugandans live in rural areas and more than ninety percent of our subjects reported earning less than two dollars per day in income. Most are not part of the formal economy and hence do not pay indirect taxes like the VAT.[66] Using self-reported income data, we considered whether those making enough to

[65] Martin 2014; Fjeldstad and Therkildsen 2008.

[66] As Kagambirwe (2014: 62) notes, "The majority of Ugandans that stay in rural areas of Uganda have no stable income amongst which the government can tax them. This thus leads to having a very limited domestic tax base amongst which URA can tax its citizens. It also limits the informal taxes such as Value Added Tax (VAT) income tax and pay as you earn (PAYEE) because the level of consumption of these commodities is low. Also the level of unemployment is so high thus limiting the citizens in earning money amongst which they can be taxed in form of pay as you earn (PAYEE)."

pay taxes responded differently than those who did not. If taxes are important, then we should observe differences between the two groups. As reported in Appendix Figures A16 and A17, however, we do not observe any significant differences in most cases.

The Government Control Condition

A second design objection might be that the government was not named explicitly in the control condition. We were concerned about social desirability in responses if we labeled the control as the government. This is not a trivial concern as the Afrobarometer data show (see footnote 46). For the citizens, we worried that they might fear government reactions and so always rank the government projects first. For the MPs, we feared social desirability bias in which they always said they preferred the government projects since they were part of the government.

To assess what citizens perceived when they viewed the control condition, as well as what the implications of this are, we conducted a follow-up mass survey in September of 2012, and we found that the majority of subjects did interpret the control condition as the government (52% and 51% for the education and electricity projects, respectively). More than one third of subjects in the follow-up study, however, attributed the control condition to a foreign donor. Our follow-up interviews with MPs in 2015 suggest similar proportions, as noted below. While a more direct comparison may have been preferable, attribution of the control projects to foreign donors works in favor of the null hypothesis of no treatment effects.

The concern is that the control condition represented a combination of people who believe it implied either the government or a foreign aid donor; that is, support for the control is equal to some average of support for foreign aid projects combined with support for government

projects. Because we know two of these three values — the outcome in the control condition overall and the outcome in the foreign aid condition, we can calculate the third: the level of support that subjects would provide had they been given the government control condition explicitly.

First, we know the average value that mass and MP respondents gave in support of the projects if they were assigned a foreign donor. In the two surveys we asked about support for the projects using 6 different aid donors for the masses and 4 for the MPs, assigning each subject a donor at random. Our data show that across all these foreign donors, the mass respondents did not differentiate significantly between them, but on average they supported the projects that were labeled as foreign-funded at a higher level than did the control group for which the donor was not named. We have similar evidence for the MPs, except the MPs, on the other hand, supported all the aid projects on average *less* than the control condition. This implies that we can calculate an average value of support among the mass public and MPs for projects led by any foreign donor.

Second, on average the control group's level of support for the projects was lower than the average for all the foreign-donor treatment groups for the mass experiment. For the MPs, the control groups' support was higher than for all the foreign aid projects. Third, our post-survey data show that 51% or 52%, depending on the random assignment of electricity or education project, respectively, believe that the control was a government project and most of the remaining believed it was a foreign donor. So the actual value of support for the control group for those

who thought it was the government can be deduced from this information. In the mass experiment it must necessarily be lower than that for the group that was given the foreign aid conditions, while in the MP experiment it must be higher.

We can use these three pieces of information to calculate the mean and standard errors of the mass respondents who attributed the control condition to the government. We can only obtain an estimate for the MPs since we did not ask them who they thought was funder in the control condition, but this still implies what the control group who attributed it to the government would have scored. We know that the mean of the control group is made up of the respondents who thought that the control was a foreign donor and those who thought the control was the government:

$$\widehat{Control} = \alpha * \widehat{Gov} + (1 - \alpha) * \widehat{Foreign}$$

where $\widehat{Control}$ and $\widehat{Foreign}$ are the average levels of support for the development projects under the control and treatment conditions, respectively. These values are known from the data and α is the percentage identifying the control as the government. Rearranging to solve for $\widehat{Gov}$ we derive:

$$\widehat{Gov} = \frac{\widehat{Control} - (1 - \alpha) * \widehat{Foreign}}{\alpha}$$

Calculating the standard error to create the confidence intervals is a little more difficult and we describe the procedure in the appendix. Using these calculated means and standard deviations, we can compare those receiving the foreign treatment to the control condition as reported in the paper to the portion of control respondents who thought the condition was the government. Appendix Figure A19 demonstrates the relative differences for the strong support condition

among the masses. For all other outcome conditions for masses and MPs, this relative ordering holds and so we do not display them here. As the figure shows, the difference between those receiving the explicit foreign condition and those thinking the control represented the government is much larger than between the explicitly foreign condition and the undifferentiated control. The direction of the effect is opposite in the MP case. Thus, the design choice we made works *against* our hypotheses and therefore provides a very conservative test; had we named the government explicitly in the control condition, we would have observed much larger differences and our results would be even stronger.

In 2015 we conducted a small follow-up study on MPs we had surveyed before. In these interviews we told them about one of our two projects but not the name of the funding organization; that is, we gave them the control condition from our prior study. Then we asked them who they think funded this and close to 40% said the Uganda government in part at least (11 of 28). This of course means that some MPs, like some citizens, perceived the control condition as sponsored by foreign donors. Again, this would have led to an understatement of the difference between treatment and control in the MP experiment.

Another concern may be that MPs may merely have a preference for unspecified over specified funding. We note in response that two of the foreign donor conditions were deliberately generic in that they attributed the projects to either an unspecified multilateral or bilateral donor. As we show in the Appendix Table A11, MPs did not significantly prefer these generic conditions to conditions in which the World Bank or the United States were named, which leads us to discount the possibility that MPs prefer projects with unspecified donors. Rather, it appears

more likely that their attribution of the control projects to the government prompted the treatment effects.

Conclusion

Who controls aid? Our experiment suggests that elites and the public both perceive that donors exert substantial influence over foreign assistance. This article provides what is, to our knowledge, the first experimental study to compare aid preferences and actions for members of parliament and a nationally representative sample of ordinary citizens in a prominent developing country. Citizens preferred aid over government programs consistently, especially in the behavioral outcomes. This was particularly so among the respondents who perceived problems with government corruption and clientelism, thus providing evidence consistent with the argument that aid can help overcome governance problems. In contrast, members of parliament consistently preferred government programs over aid and especially for those MPs perceiving corruption and clientelism.

The study brings together two complimentary literatures. The large literature on clientelism and corruption in developing countries shows that governments have the desire and will to use their funds to promote their own political purposes first and foremost. Staying in office is critical and using government projects to build support is one way to do this. Uganda's government is no exception. However, aid scholars often assess foreign assistance without any direct comparison to the most realistic alternative, which is government funding. Our study examines

the beliefs and actions of both elites and citizens by comparing their support for these two different sources of development finance.

The study provides evidence that both elites and citizens in Uganda believe that donors have significant control over aid and little encouragement for the notion that elites largely capture foreign assistance. The provision of aid involves a bargaining relationship between donors and recipient governments; the balance of power between them depends on the situation. The end of the Cold War and the experiences of donors with corrupt and autocratic governments seem to have lent impetus to much greater efforts at donor control, as many studies show.[67] Our study also finds that public and elite perceptions reflect this greater sense of donor control. The idea that aid is highly fungible and that recipient governments can do as they please with it finds little support in the results. Indeed, on nearly every measure elites prefer the control condition implying government funding to the treatment conditions naming foreign donors, sometimes significantly so, and these results largely strengthen when examining MPs who strongly perceive government corruption. Citizens move in the opposite direction: they significantly prefer foreign aid across several attitudinal and behavioral measures to projects implying government sponsorship, and this is especially so for citizens perceiving meaningful levels of corruption.

Neither elites nor citizens are indifferent between aid and government–funded projects. Elites and citizens have distinct preferences. Citizens are more willing to support aid by taking behavioral actions imposing personal costs through signing a petition and sending an SMS. They

[67] Dunning 2004; Bermeo 2008; Bearce and Tirone 2010.

also on average view aid as less politicized than government programs and trust foreign donor institutions more than domestic ones; and they see conditionality as often helping the country, not hurting it.[68] This provides support for the belief that donors can exert some control over foreign assistance, which argues that aid donors strategically control their aid through channeling, monitoring, and bypassing.

Again suggesting beliefs consistent with donor control, political elites proved less enthusiastic about aid than government-funded projects. MPs likely face fewer constraints over how they utilize domestic government resources. High levels of corruption and clientelism exist in developing countries even in the absence of foreign aid. And domestic resources may be even easier for governments to divert to these purposes since there are often no strong accountability mechanisms in poor developing countries. MPs on average had high levels of trust in foreign aid institutions, and many thought they were more effective at providing and more successful at concluding development projects. But they also thought aid was too constrained by conditionality, rules and regulations and hence more costly to deal with than government funds.

Our comparison of masses and elites helps to resolve a novel puzzle about divergent preferences for development assistance. Martin, for instance, hypothesizes that elites and masses have different preferences about development projects, with the public favoring public goods more than elites.[69] Our results support this supposition, suggesting that aid recipients should not be treated as a unitary group. Furthermore, our study pursues distinct observable implications

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[68] Milner, Nielson, and Findley 2016.

[69] Martin 2014.

of the argument that donors have significant control over aid, namely, that citizens perceiving greater corruption and clientelism should prefer stronger foreign donors who can deliver aid, whereas elites should prefer the opposite. Our findings support other research that shows aid revenue should not produce a political curse because it is less fungible, more conditional, and less constant than other non-tax revenues, making it difficult for recipient governments to use aid to fund either repression or appeasement.[70] The study thus finds evidence in favor of donor control and little support for aid capture.

These conclusions have more than academic implications. More than in most issue areas, policymakers at multilateral and bilateral aid agencies have developed close ties to scholars studying foreign aid. In several recent instances, aid policymakers have adjusted policies toward conclusions drawn from academic literatures. Yet prominent studies have proposed that aid fosters corruption and autocracy and therefore imply that aid should be reduced or even abandoned. The results of this study, by contrast, suggest that donors are aware of the risks and try to manage aid to benefit publics and bypass political capture. Indeed, both citizens and elites in Uganda see these efforts as effective. Moreover, our study suggests that donors should do more to condition and monitor aid, not less, in order to foster development. As seen from the ground level, foreign assistance can under certain conditions promote rather than hinder development.

[70] Altincekic and Bearce 2014.

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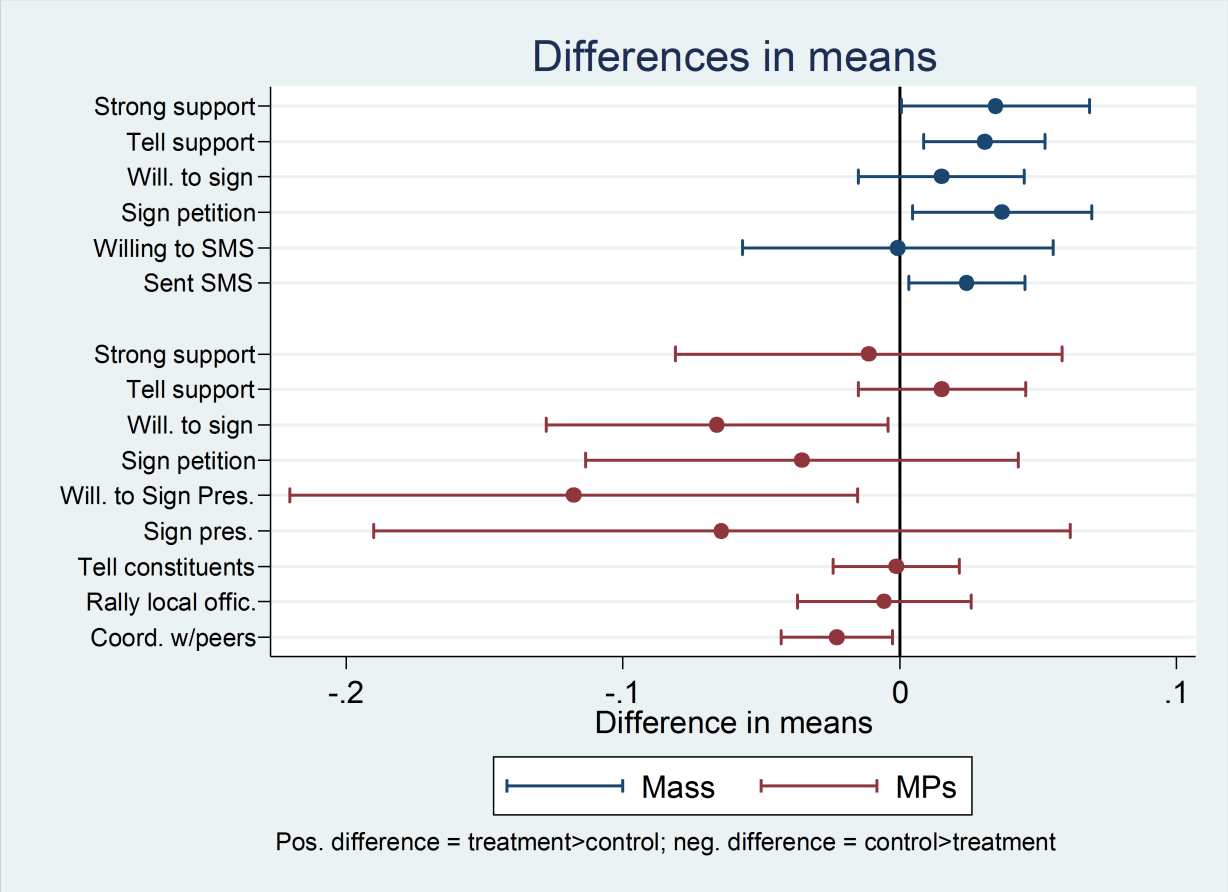
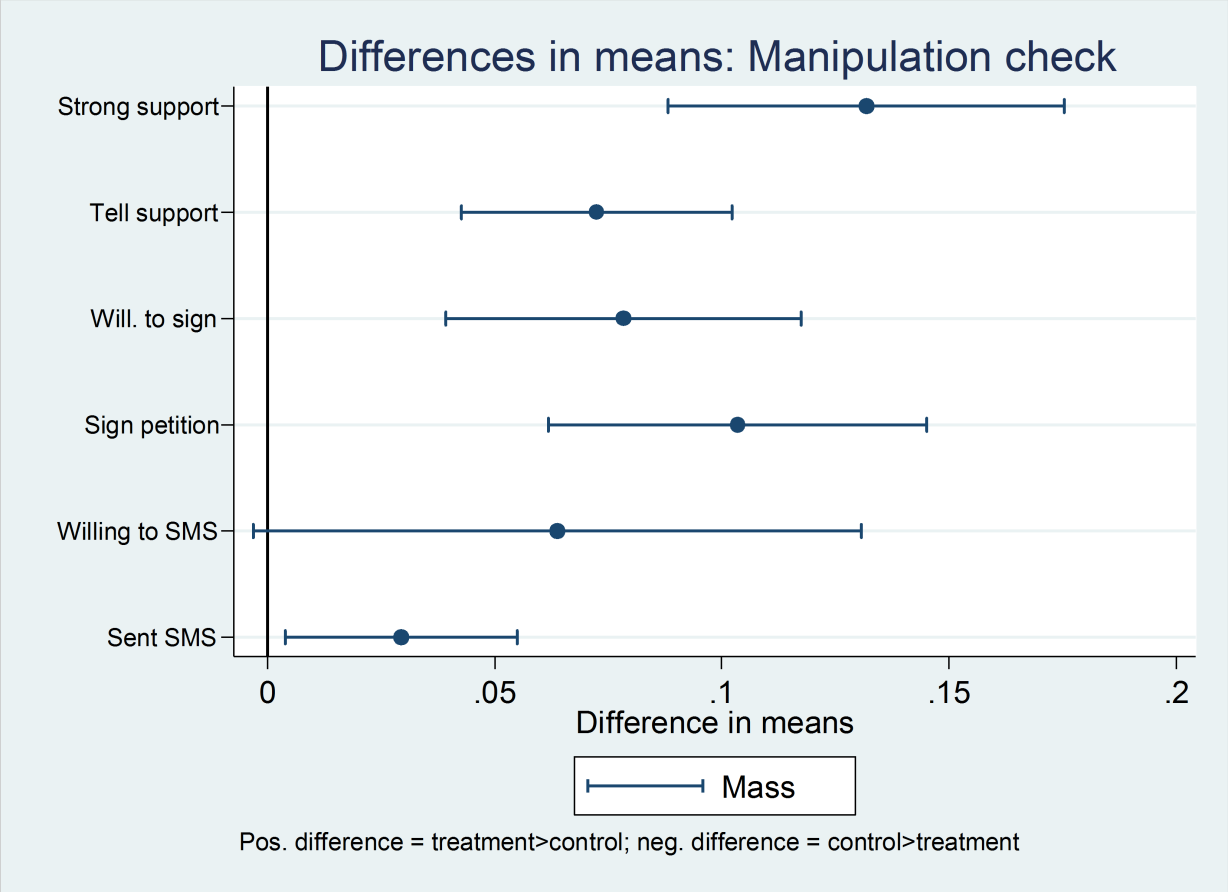
Figure 1: Difference in Means Tests Comparing MPs and Masses



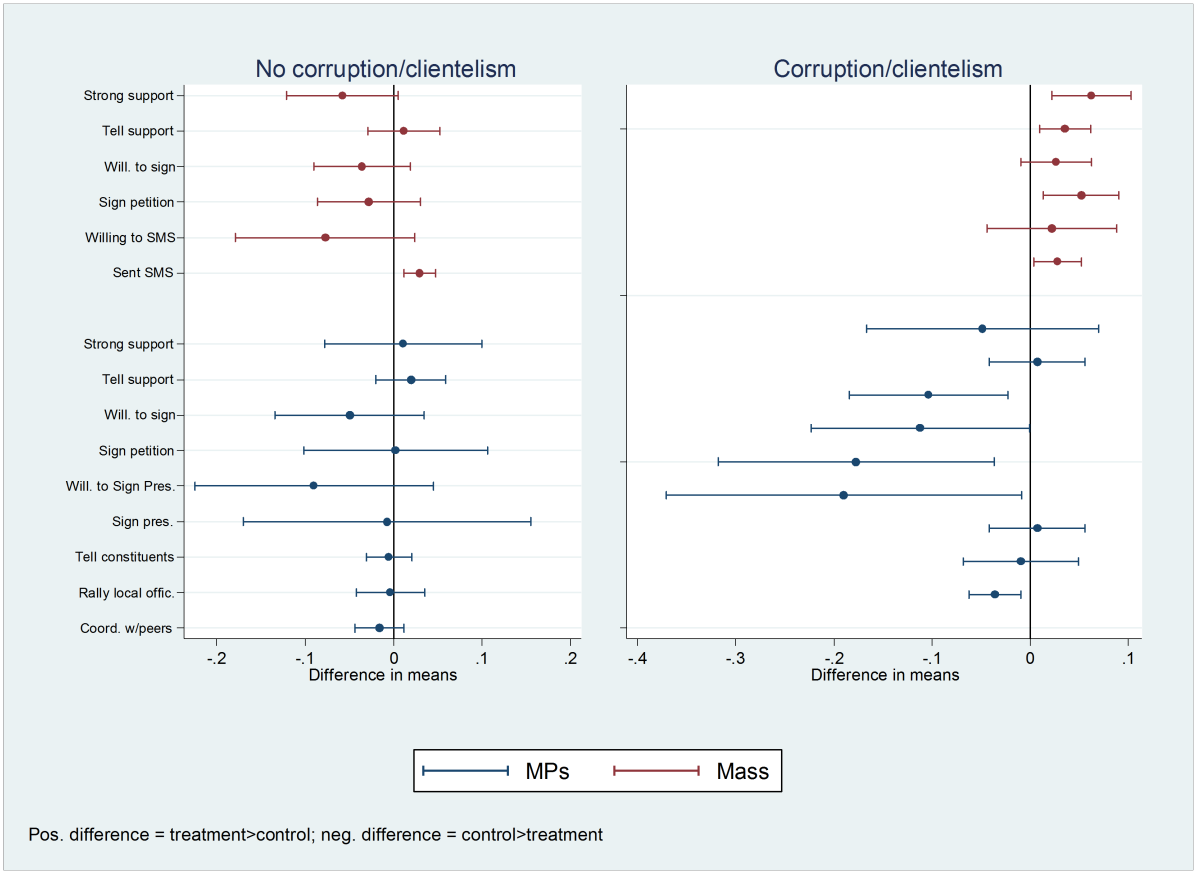
Note: Difference in means for mass and MPs. 90% confidence intervals. Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding.

Figure 2: Difference in Means Tests Masses passing manipulation



Note: difference in means with 90% confidence intervals for mass who passed manipulation checks. Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding.

Figure 3: Difference in Means for Corruption/Clientelism Mechanism



Note: Difference in means with 90% confidence intervals for masses and MPs who do not perceive corruption or clientelism in the government vs. those who do. Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that masses have strong preferences for foreign aid when they perceive corruption. MPs who perceive corruption, on the other hand, prefer government funds over aid.

APPENDIX FOR "WHO CONTROLS FOREIGN AID? ELITE VERSUS PUBLIC PERCEPTIONS OF DONOR INFLUENCE IN AID-DEPENDENT UGANDA"

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This appendix reports on design features as well as additional results not contained in the paper.

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Design Details

Text of the Education Project

For the other project the question was: "The Post Primary Education and Training Adaptable Program Lending Project seeks to increase access to lower secondary education, improve the quality of lower secondary education, and enhance primary education and training. The project may require your community to providing funding for maintenance in the future. [This project will be funded by the {RANDOMLY ASSIGNED FUNDER}]. How much would you support this project?"

Text of the Petition

Dear Sir/Madam
I have learned about the Electricity Sector Development Project through participating in a survey project with [UNIVERSITY NAME REDACTED]. I understand that this project will improve the reliability of and increase access to electricity and that one major aspect of the project is to extend electricity to those who do not yet have access to it. I am signing this letter to voice my [support/opposition] to this project's implementation in Uganda.

Signed:

_____ Date:_____

_____ Date:_____

Study Sample

To maximize the number of responses in the MP survey, we attempted to conduct a census of all current MPs and achieved a 72 percent response rate. In addition, we also contacted as many former MPs as possible (from the previous parliament) and obtained a 55 percent response rate. While key aspects of the experimental instruments were kept identical for each group to facilitate comparisons, the citizen survey was lengthier. The former MP response rate is lower because former MPs are scattered throughout the country and not as easily accessible.

In view of time constraints in the MP survey, we were unable to obtain as much demographic data on MPs. Beyond the comparisons in outcome data explored below, we can identify some comparisons. For example, the MP sample has more men, and has a higher proportion of NRM than the mass sample.

Table A1: Comparison of MP Sample to the Actual 9th Parliament

	Sample	9th Parliament
Gender		
% Male	67	65
% Female	33	35
Party		
% NRM	74.6	73.5
% Independents	10.2	11.2
% FDC	8.5	8.8
% DP	3.1	3.4
% UPC	3.1	2.6
% CP	0.25	0.25
% JEEMA	0.25	0.25
Region		
% from Central	28	25
% from Eastern	28	27
% from Northern	18	22
% from Western	26	26
MP Type		
% Constituency MPs	59	62
% District Women MPs	28	29
% Special Interest MPs	6	7
% Ex-Officio MPs	8	2

Randomization Checks

Table A2: Randomization Checks for Masses and MPs

Assignment to Treatment	Mass b/se	MP b/se
Education	0.017	
	(0.015)	
Male	-0.051	0.093
	(0.100)	(0.208)
Age	0.002	
	(0.004)	
NRM	-0.089	-0.036
	(0.103)	(0.231)
Christian	0.828	
	(0.537)	
Muslim	1.021	
	(0.553)	
Poverty (dichotomous)	0.122	
	(0.106)	
Knowledge (dichotomous)	0.032	
	(0.121)	
Foreign media exposure	-0.047	-0.099
	(0.182)	(0.388)
Runyankole	0.034	-0.374
	(0.165)	(0.280)
Nationalist	0.010	-0.207
	(0.115)	(0.206)
Western region	0.183	
	(0.146)	
Eastern region	0.118	
	(0.160)	
Northern region	-0.063	
	(0.141)	
_cons	0.657	1.512***
	(0.575)	(0.265)
N	3251	696

Main Results in Table Form

Table A3: Citizen and MP Preferences for Government versus Aid Projects

Panel A: MP and Citizen Outcomes

MPs	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to sign	Signed	Willing to *Sign Pres.*	Signed *Pres.*
Govt	0.84	0.97	.89	.78	.86	.75
N	136	136	136	138	59	59
Aid	0.83	0.99	.82	.75	.75	.68
N	567	567	567	570	292	292
Difference	-0.01	0.02	-0.07**	-0.04	-0.12**	-0.06
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to sign	Signed	Willing to *SMS*	Sent *SMS*
Masses						
Govt	0.73	0.91	0.82	0.77	0.59	0.02
N	528	520	528	538	538	202
Aid	0.77	0.94	0.83	0.80	0.64	0.05
N	3007	2967	3008	3017	3017	1143
Difference	0.03*	0.03**	0.02	0.04*	0.04*	0.02*

Panel B: Elite Only Outcomes

	Tell Constituents	Rally Local Officials	Coordinate with Peers
MPs			
Govt	0.99	0.98	0.99
N	136	123	136
Aid	0.98	0.97	0.97
N	567	501	567
Difference	-0.00	-0.01	-0.02**

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column). The higher Ns for willingness to SMS in the fifth column (e.g., 538 and 3017) are a result of subject refusals to answer the petition questions (where corresponding Ns are lower: 528 and 3008). That is, if a subject refused to answer petition questions, we still asked about SMS and fewer subjects declined to answer SMS questions. Also, the Ns decrease in the "Sent SMS" condition (relative to "Willing to SMS") because we only calculate Sent SMS for subjects who owned a phone.

Table A4: Experimental Results — Manipulation Checks and CACE Analysis

	Strong Support	Tell Support	Willing to Sign	Signed Petition	Willing to SMS	Sent SMS
Passed manipulation check						
Gov't	0.68	0.88	0.78	0.72	0.54	0.03
N	349	341	349	357	357	149
Aid	0.82	0.96	0.85	0.83	0.68	0.06
N	1887	1874	1888	1893	1893	852
Difference	0.13***	0.07***	0.08***	0.10***	0.15***	0.03*
T-test	4.98	4.01	3.30	4.10	5.12	1.91
P-value	0.000	0.000	0.001	0.000	0.000	0.058
2SLS (Instrument: Assignment to treatment; Instrumented: Perceptions in MC)						
Aid Treatment	0.07*	0.06**	0.03	0.07*	0.08*	0.04*
Std. Error	(0.04)	(0.03)	(0.04)	(0.04)	(0.05)	(0.02)
N	3523	3477	3524	3543	3543	1341

Statistical significance indicated as follows: *** p <0.01; ** p < 0.05; * p < 0.10.
All tests of statistical significance are two-tailed.

Table A5: Testing the Corruption Mechanism (MPs)

MP Support Conditional on Perceptions of Corruption						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to Sign	Signed	Willing to Sign Pres.	Signed Pres. Pet.
Yes, Government Funds used for Corruption						
Govt	0.86	0.98	0.95	0.89	0.94	0.89
N	44	44	44	45	18	18
Aid	0.82	0.98	0.85	0.78	0.77	0.70
N	195	195	195	197	103	103
Difference	-0.05	0.01	-0.10**	-0.11**	-0.18**	-0.19**
No, Government Funds not used for Corruption						
Govt	0.82	0.97	0.86	0.73	0.83	0.68
N	90	90	90	91	41	41
Aid	0.83	0.99	0.81	0.73	0.74	0.68
N	366	366	366	367	188	188
Difference	0.01	0.02	-0.05	0.00	-0.09	-0.01

MP Support Conditional on Perceptions of Corruption			
	Tell Constituents	Rally Locals	Coordinate With Peers
Yes, Government Funds used for Clientelism			
Govt	0.98	0.97	1.00
N	44	39	44
Aid	0.98	0.96	0.96
N	195	171	195
Difference	-0.01	-0.01	-0.04***
No, Government Funds not used for Clientelism			
Govt	0.99	0.98	0.99
N	90	82	90
Aid	0.98	0.97	0.97
N	366	324	366
Difference	-0.01	-0.00	-0.02

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column).

Table A6: Testing the Corruption Mechanism (Masses)

Mass Support Conditional on Perceptions of Corruption						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to sign	Signed	Willing to SMS	Sent SMS
Yes, Government Funds used for Corruption						
Govt	0.71	0.90	0.80	0.74	0.69	0.03
N	393	386	393	402	157	157
Aid	0.77	0.94	0.83	0.80	0.71	0.05
N	2274	2241	2274	2279	894	894
Difference	0.06**	0.04**	0.03	0.05**	0.02	0.03*
No, Government Funds not used for Corruption						
Govt	0.82	0.93	0.87	0.85	0.86	0.00
N	126	126	126	176	42	42
Aid	0.76	0.94	0.84	0.82	0.78	0.03
N	695	688	696	699	236	236
Difference	-0.06	0.01	-0.04	-0.03	-0.08	0.03***

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column). The higher Ns for willingness to SMS in the fifth column are a result of subject refusals to answer the petition questions. That is, if a subject refused to answer petition questions, we still asked about SMS and fewer subjects declined to answer SMS questions. Also, the Ns decrease in the "Sent SMS" condition (relative to "Willing to SMS") because we only calculate Sent SMS for subjects who owned a phone.

Probing Alternative Mechanisms

Foreign Media Effect

Mass respondents could be more likely to voice their support for a project when it is associated with a foreign donor rather than when it is a domestic source. Citizens and elites that prefer foreign media are more likely to be biased in favor of foreign projects because those projects are referenced favorably in the foreign media. We thus separated masses and MPs by the extent to which they prefer foreign media over Ugandan media (Figures A1 and A2). The results generally are inconsistent and weak. For the masses that do not prefer foreign media (Figure A1), there is a preference for foreign aid over government assistance, though the results are not consistently significant. The direction of this effect cuts against a foreign media effect hypothesis, moreover. MPs who do not prefer foreign media expressed more support for government assistance, but likewise the significance of the results is weak. For the masses preferring foreign media (Figure A2), there is again a preference for foreign aid. But again the results are not statistically strong. On the other hand, MPs that prefer foreign media express stronger support for government projects, and a number of these results are statistically significant, though in the opposite direction from what a media effect argument would predict. As an additional test of this mechanism, we also separated respondents into those who indicated that they had *heard* of at least two of the foreign donors used in the experiments (e.g., USAID, World Bank) and those who had not. We assume that prior knowledge of the donors that were used as treatment conditions is correlated with a stronger media effect for foreign donors. Importantly, we only asked these knowledge questions of voters, and can only text this mechanism among them, as we did not want to patronize the MPs by asking such question as "Have you heard of the World Bank". We find that citizens who had heard of at least two of the donors *were not* more likely to prefer foreign aid over government funds. These results are largely robust to using "only heard of one aid donor" as the cutoff point. The only change is that those who have heard of at least one donor are significantly more likely to sign a petition for an aid-funded project ($p < 0.05$).

Figure A1: Difference in means tests for masses and MPs who do not prefer to watch foreign media.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that masses who prefer local media still support aid, though the results are not strong statistically. The results for MPs do not suggest any clear lessons.

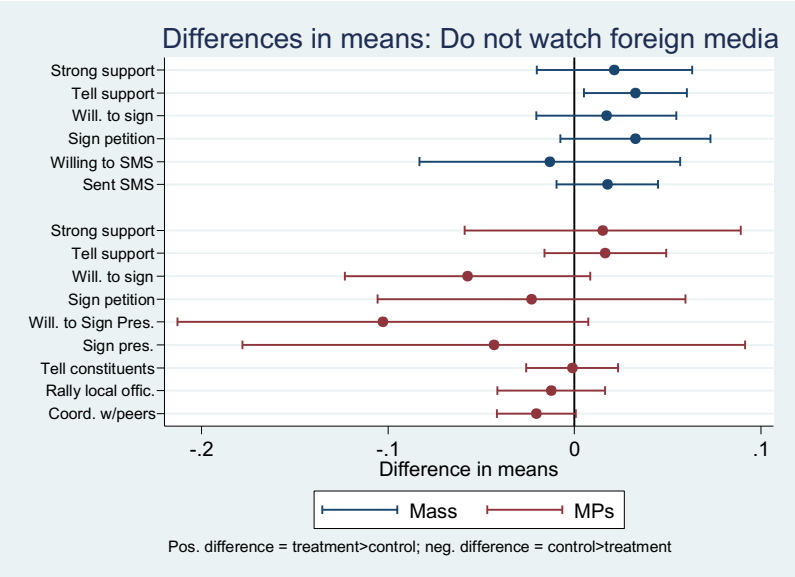
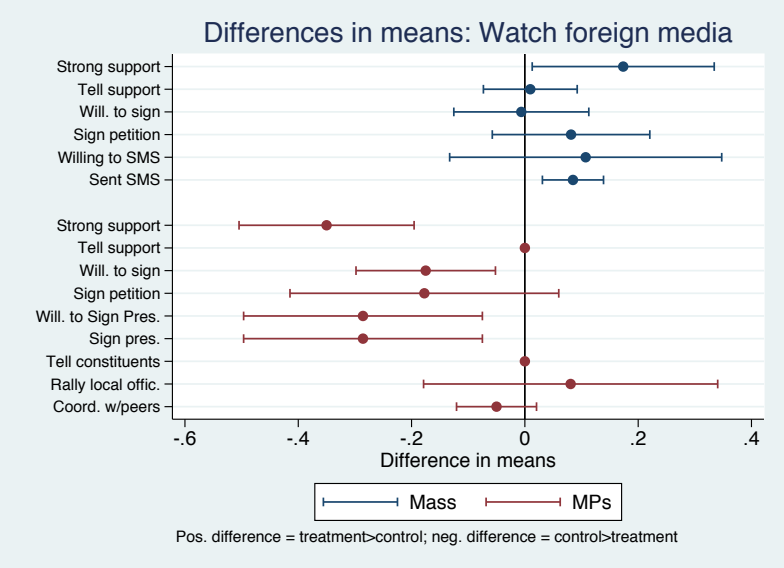


Figure A2: Difference in means tests for masses and MPs who prefer to watch foreign media.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that masses who prefer foreign media support aid, though the results are not strong statistically. The results for MPs suggest that those that prefer foreign media still support government assistance, contrary to expectations of a media effect argument.



Partisanship

Partisanship has played an important role in Ugandan politics at both the citizen and elite levels, revolving around the NRM-opposition split. However, recently, the NRM has faced important opposition not just from opposition parties, who are fractured and currently only hold 16% of the seats in parliament, but mainly from within the NRM's own ranks. In the run-up to the 2011 parliamentary elections, for example, the NRM primaries were hotly contested (in many instances more contested than the general elections). Ballot boxes were stuffed and elections rigged to ensure that party-leader favorites won the NRM party nomination (Malinga, 2010). This led to wide discontent among the losers of the primaries. Many of these individuals then ran as independents in 2011, and now the current parliament has more independents than any single opposition party, which makes the role of partisanship more complicated and less predictable.

One might expect that ruling-party NRM MPs and mass NRM partisans would be strong supporters of their government's own projects, but it is also possible that NRM MPs and supporters favor foreign aid because it shows that the government is capable of attracting funds from abroad. One might also expect MPs and masses who support the opposition to favor foreign projects simply because they are not run completely by the NRM. Thus, for partisanship to explain the divergent findings across MPs and voters, there must be significant differences between NRM and opposition support for government vs. aid projects, and the difference in differences must favor government projects for MPs and aid projects for citizens. In other words, NRM MPs must prefer government more than opposition MPs prefer aid, and opposition supporters among the citizenry must prefer aid more than NRM supporters prefer government.

The difference in means tests comparing preferences for foreign aid versus government funds among both MPs and masses who are and are not members of the NRM are reported in Figures A3 and A4. Figure A3 shows that among the public, opposition supporters have stronger preferences for aid-funded projects (in 3 of 6 conditions), whereas opposition MPs have stronger preferences for government funded projects (in 4 of 9 conditions) although the number of MPs in that cell is very small. Figure A4 shows that NRM supporters in the citizenry are not significantly more likely to prefer one type of project over another. NRM MPs are likewise not significantly more likely to prefer either type of funding. It is puzzling that NRM MPs and masses do not support their own government projects most of all, but given the divisions within the NRM this may be understandable. Overall, partisanship does not seem to explain the main results about differences between elites and masses.

Our follow-up qualitative interviews with MPs shed some light on this counterintuitive finding. The null results regarding NRM MP preferences are likely due to an even balance of MPs preferring government and aid. In our follow-up interviews ten NRM MPs preferred to work with government on the proposed project and nine NRM MPs

preferred to work with an aid donor. This is not particularly surprising given that the NRM is a large umbrella party. Importantly, the logics of these two groups are clearly distinct: those who support working with the government do so because the government is mandated to do so, the government should take ownership over development projects, and government projects enjoy more flexible implementation. NRM MPs who would prefer aid projects argue that aid projects are less susceptible to corruption and are better managed. It seems that some NRM MPs are willing to overlook corruption for ownership and more flexibility while others are not.

It is a bit more difficult to parse out the opposition MPs' stance of preferring government projects, but once again our follow-up interviews provide some incite. The logic of the non-NRM MPs regarding their support for aid or government projects from the follow-up interviews are the same as the logics of the NRM MPs described above, but more of the opposition MPs prefer the government (6 prefer government while only 2 prefer aid). This could be the case because the MPs are responding to different perceptions of voter preferences. The majority of opposition MPs in our follow-up interviews said that citizens preferred government projects while the NRM MPs seemed much less clear as to which types of projects the citizen's preferred (9 said aid, 6 said government, and 3 said they were not sure). While this is only conjecture given the suggestive nature of this evidence, the difference in MP preferences by partisanship could be due to both divergent preferences within the large ruling party and different perceptions of voter preferences.

Figure A3: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who do not belong to the ruling NRM party.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. Thus, for non-NRM members the masses appear to support foreign aid more than the MPs who appear to support government funding. The results are significant in a few cases, but not consistently across most conditions.

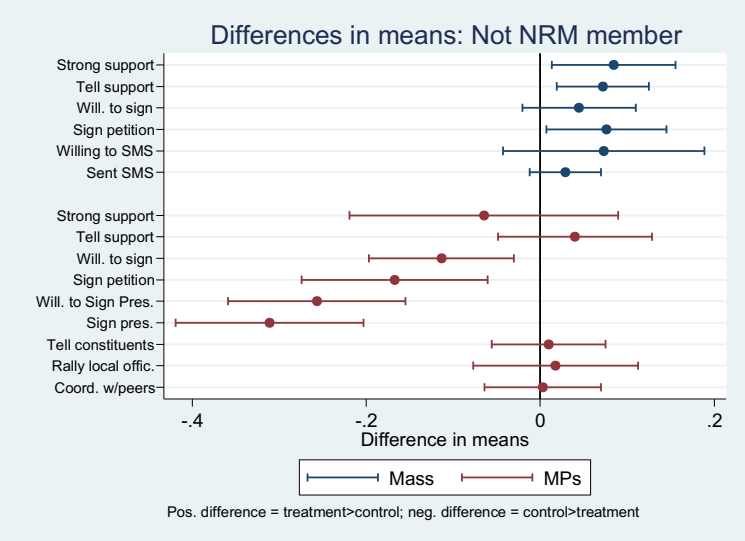
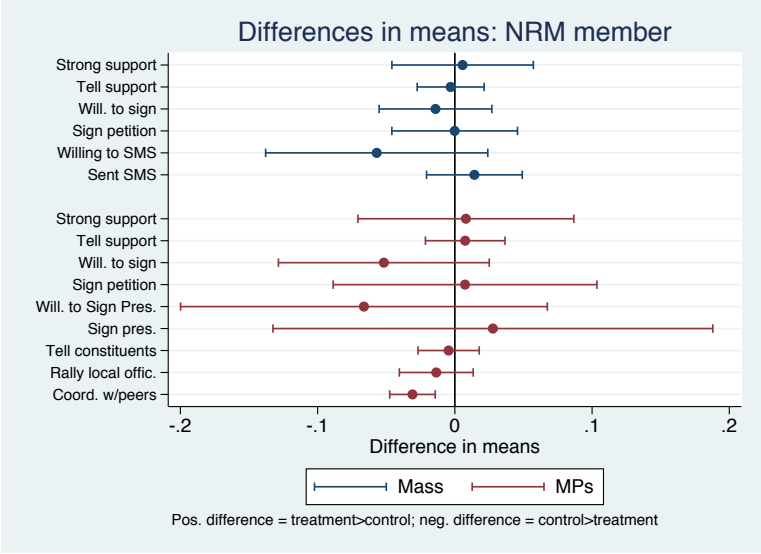


Figure A4: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who do not belong to the ruling NRM party.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that NRM masses and MPs do not consistently support aid or government funding over each other.



Ethnicity

Ethnicity is also important in the Ugandan political context. Critically, shared ethnicity with the chief executive of the country has important political and developmental consequences in that the leader's co-ethnics are likely to benefit (Franck and Rainer, 2012). In Uganda, it is commonly understood that when Northerners such as President Milton Obote were in power, the Northern region of the country received the most benefits in terms of development, government employment, and other material goods. Now, under President Museveni, many citizens argue that the Western region, especially those areas in which his fellow Muyankole are dominant, receive the new roads, schools, and clinics. Whether or not this is in fact true, citizens tend to operate under these assumptions (see Posner, 2005).

Thus another possible explanation for the divergent preferences between MPs and masses is co-ethnic identity with the president. On the one hand, ethnicity is often understood to be a vehicle for clientelism or patronage (Posner, 2005; Franck and Rainer, 2012) and may therefore be associated with mass and MP support for the government. According to this logic, masses and MPs who are of the same ethnicity as the President should prefer government spending over aid. But this would not present a possible explanation for the divergent preferences that we actually observe in the data. Instead, it would have to be the case that co-ethnic masses had a different set of preferences relative to co-ethnic MPs. While we question whether this could be the case, we want to conjecture about ethnic explanations that can account for the divergent preferences.

One possibility would be to tie into the logic of descriptive representation benefits for voters (Bobo and Gilliam, 1990; Barreto et al., 2004). By this argument, Museveni's fellow Munyankole citizens[2] receive sufficient benefits from having one of their own in the highest office in the country such that they do not necessarily expect material benefits from the government and therefore might prefer aid projects. Co-ethnic MPs, on the other hand, expect greater favor, access to more funds, and cabinet positions from the president *because* they are from the same ethnic group as the president. Thus, these MPs should be more likely to support government funds because they should be the ones most likely to directly benefit.

If co-ethnicity provides descriptive benefits to the masses and financial benefits to MPs, then co-ethnic masses should have a stronger preference for aid and co-ethnic MPs should prefer government funds. The results of the difference of means test comparing co-ethnic and non-co-ethnic masses as well as MPs are reported in Figures A5 and A6. The results show that neither non-co-ethnic masses nor MPs have a clear and consistent preference for one funding source over another (Figure A5 – non-coethnic), which at best partially supports the argument. However, Figure A6 (co-ethnic) shows this same

[2] Runyankole is the language that Munyankole speak, which are the President's ethnic group and language.

trend: neither co-ethnic masses nor MPs have a clear preference for either source of funding. Thus, there is no clear evidence that ethnicity is driving the main effects.

Figure A5: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who do not share the same ethnicity as President Museveni.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that non-coethnic masses support aid more than government, though the result is not statistically strong. Non-coethnic MPs support government funding more but likewise the result is not strong statistically.

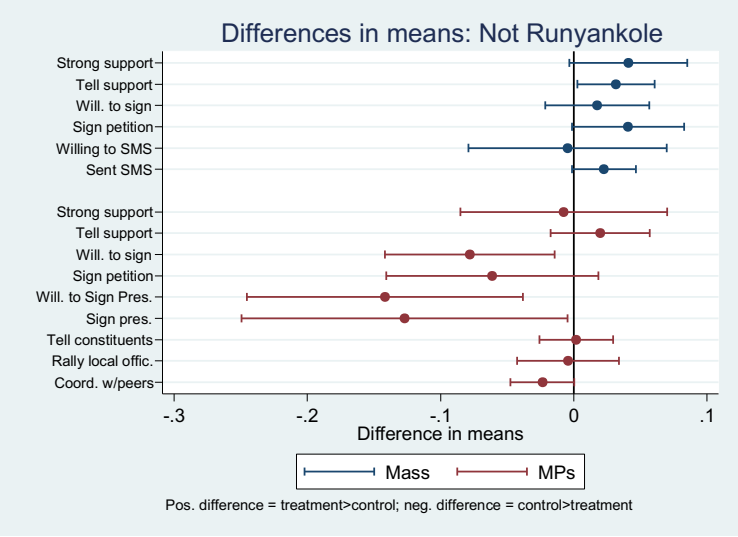
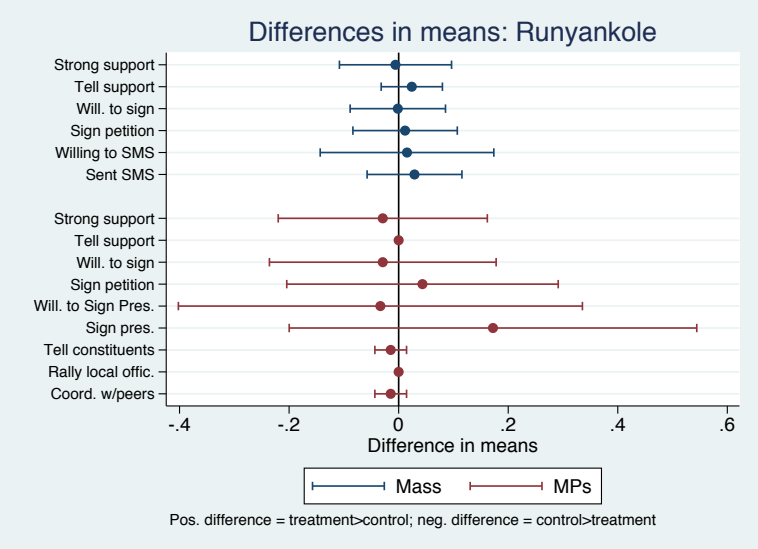


Figure A6: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who share the same ethnicity as President Museveni.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that coethnic masses and coethnic MPs have no strong preferences for foreign aid or government.



Nationalism

Related to the ethnicity argument, an alternative explanation for the results could be that MPs are nationalistic and resent relying on outside donors for development interventions. They should thus be averse to supporting what appears to be charity from outsiders. While some citizens may also hold nationalistic views, they may be less nationalistic than MPs who serve in national office. We specifically question whether individuals who feel a strong sense of commitment to a national or state identity as opposed to a particular ethnic group view foreign involvement differently.[3]

Following other surveys, we measured attachment to nation vs. ethnic group by asking individuals to respond to the following: "Let us suppose that you had to choose between being Ugandan and being [insert respondent's ethnic identity]." Response options range from feeling exclusively Ugandan, to mostly Ugandan, to equally Ugandan and a member of one' ethnic group, to mostly ethnic, to exclusively ethnic. In Sub-Saharan Africa, tribal affiliations are the most salient competitor to national ones so we think this question gets at the core of nationalist sentiment in that region. We then measured whether those who feel more Ugandan behave differently from those who feel greater attachment to their own ethnic group. In our data, relative to the masses, Ugandan MPs report higher levels of attachment to Uganda as a national identity than they do to their particular ethnic category.

For individuals who do not consider themselves nationalist (see Figure A7), masses prefer foreign aid whereas MPs prefers government spending, though the results are not consistently significant. For those individuals who considered themselves more nationalist (see Figure A7), there are no consistent patterns of support for aid or government spending. Moreover, there are no consistent differences between masses and MPs among nationalist respondents. The evidence for a nationalist explanation is thus weak at best.

[3] Nationalism and its relationship to ethnicity are often debated and a full discussion is beyond the scope of this paper. See fuller treatments elsewhere including Calhoun (1993) and Chandra (2006).

Figure A7: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who feel a stronger attachment to tribe than to a larger Ugandan nationality.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that non-nationalist masses prefer foreign aid over government funding, though the result is not consistently significant. The direction of the results for the non-nationalist MPs is opposite, but again the results are not consistently significant.

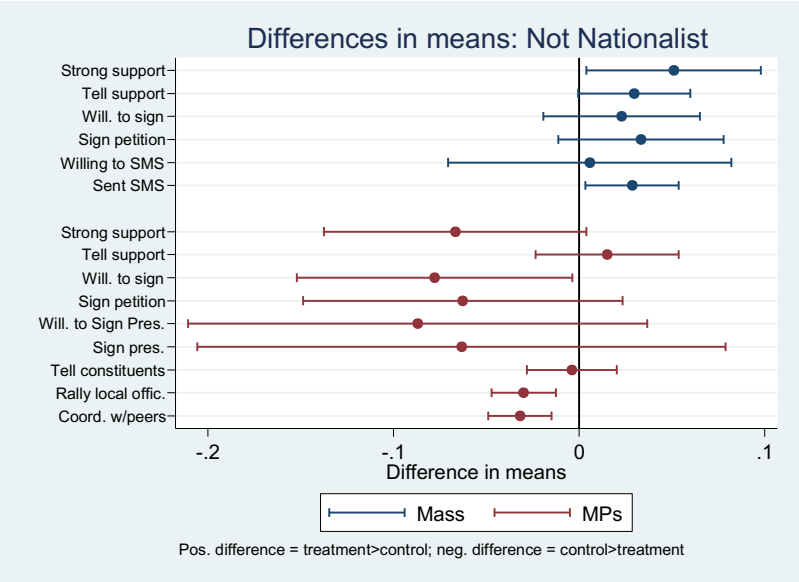
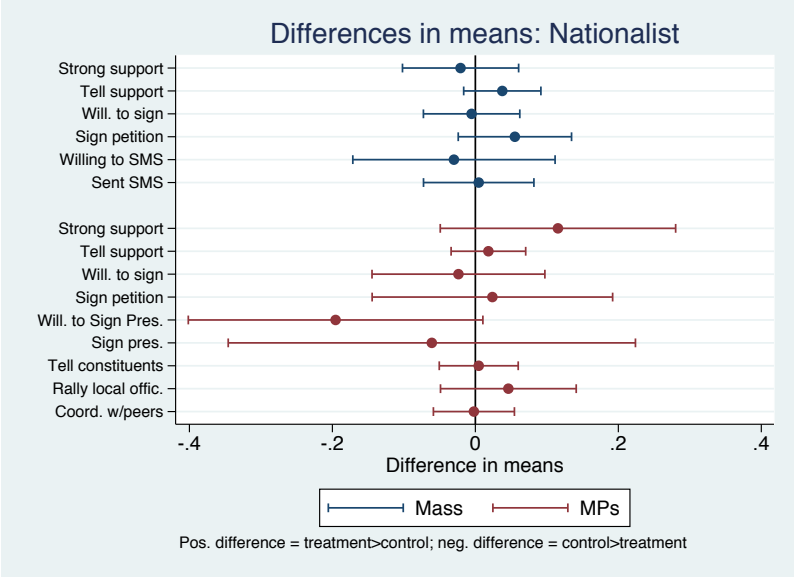


Figure A8: Difference in means tests for MPs and masses who feel a stronger attachment to a larger Ugandan nationality than to their own tribe.

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that neither nationalist masses nor MPs have strong preferences for aid or government funds.



Incumbency Bias

Related to the nationalism claim, MPs may simply be more likely to prefer government programs because they are part of the government. To test this, we took advantage of a unique aspect of our study: we surveyed 78 former MPs. If being in the government matters, then we should see greater levels of support for government-funded projects among current MPs compared to former MPs. The difference-in-means tests that compare former and current MPs are reported in Figures A9 and A10. These figures show that there is almost no difference between current and former MPs, thus casting doubt on this alternative claim that actual presence in government drives the pro-government bias.

Figure A9: Difference in means tests for former MPs

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that former MPs have no strong preferences for aid over government or vice versa.

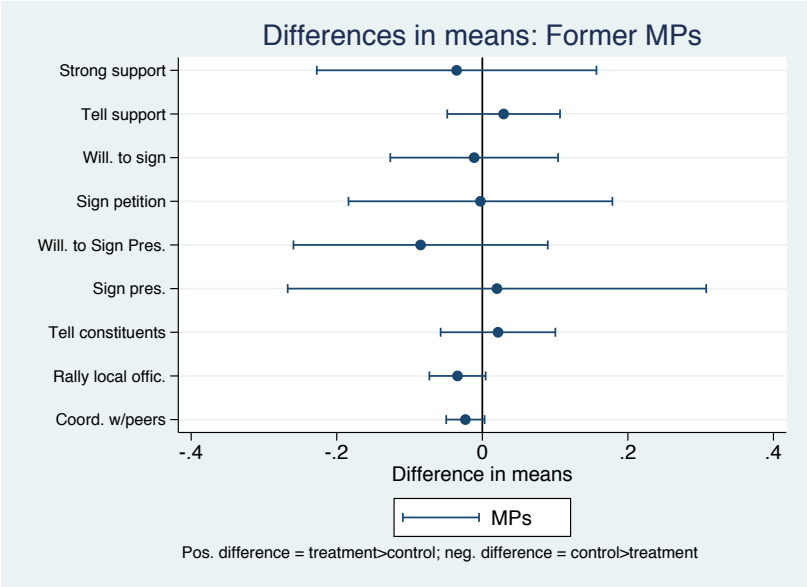
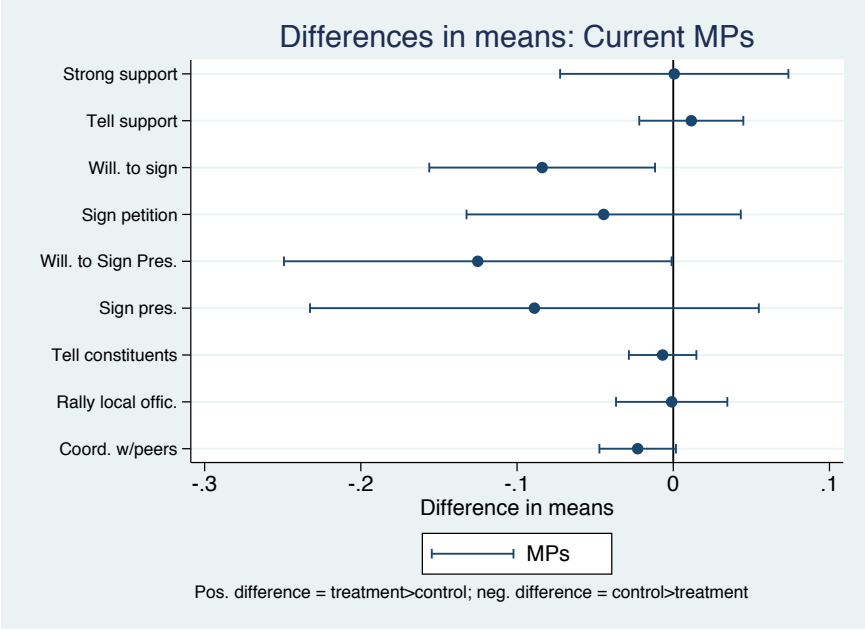


Figure A10: Difference in means tests for current MPs

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that current MPs prefer government funds over aid, though the result is only significant in one condition.



Parliamentary Leadership

We test whether parliamentary leaders have significantly different preferences for government and/or donor funds than the rank and file. The results are reported in Figures A11 and A12 and show that while backbenchers do not have a clear preference for one form of funds over another, MPs in the leadership are more willing to sign both the donor and president petitions when they receive the control (government) condition. The effects follow the same pattern, meaning roughly the same outcomes are significant in both cases, as the main corruption effects, but are not as strong.

Figure A11: Difference in means tests for MP Parliamentary Leaders.
Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that leaders in parliament do have a slight preference for government funds over aid.

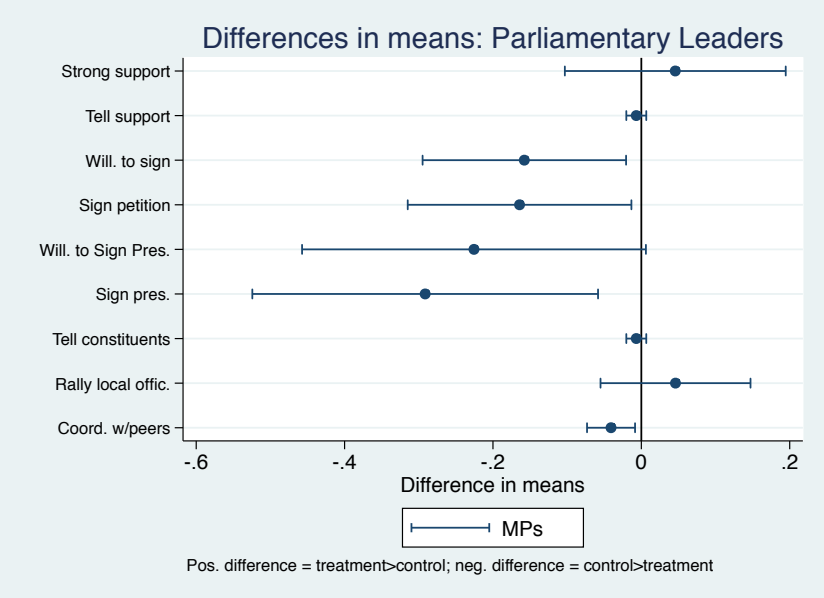
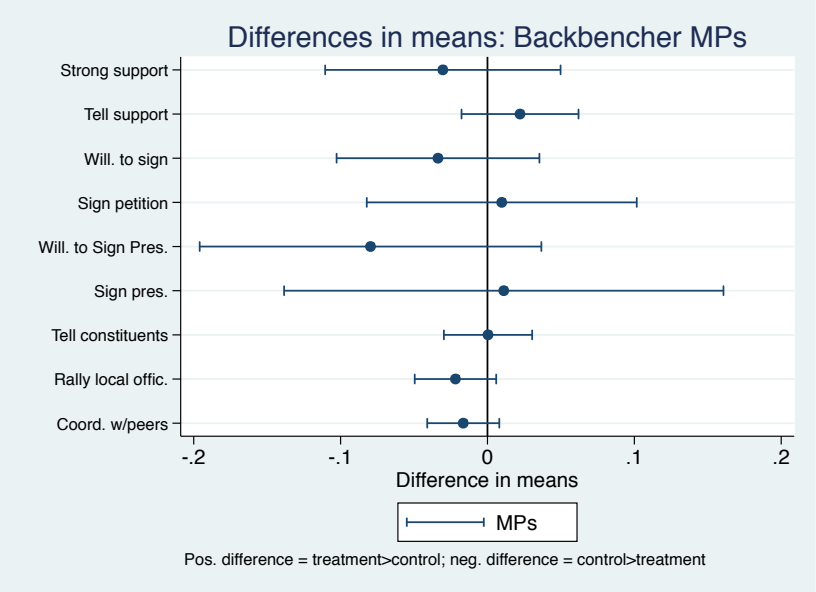


Figure A12: Difference in means tests for MP Backbenchers in parliament

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that backbenchers in parliament have no strong preferences for aid over government or vice versa.



Sociodemographic Factors: MPs Differ from Masses

A final alternative explanation for the differences between MPs and masses regarding their preferences for aid versus government-funded projects could simply be due to the fact that MPs are different in terms of class, wealth, education, status, etc. Simply by being an MP, one develops a different perspective on development funding (and other issues). Thus, corruption and clientelism are not the driving factors but rather the fact that we have two very distinct samples of individuals. To test this possibility we divide the mass sample into two types: high and low types. High types are those individuals who, among the masses, are relatively similar to the MP population. High types are those who pay taxes, are in the top 25 percent in terms of education, are urban, and are highly informed. We then run the same analysis testing for differential effects across these sub-groups. If we find that the high types do in fact have preferences more similar to the MPs and thus different from the masses then we have some evidence that socio-demographic factors that are common among MPs are stronger drivers of funding preferences. Figures A13 and A14 illustrate that there are only slight differences between the low and high types among the masses. The high type mass preferences are much more similar to the rest of the masses than to MP preferences. The estimates for high types have large standard errors because the sample size is small (N = 262). However, for both high and low types the coefficients are consistently positive indicating a stronger preference for aid even if these estimates are not statistically significant (except in the case of the SMS and voicing support for low types). Therefore, the lack of difference between high types, who are relatively more similar to MPs in terms of information, income, and education, and low types signals that access to information or other qualities unique to MPs are not likely driving the effects found regarding different preferences across MPs and masses. There is something about being in a position of power with access to resources that alters individuals' preferences for aid relative to government funds.

Figure A13: Difference in means tests for mass high types

Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that high types tend to prefer aid but these findings are not statistically significant. There are no error bars associated with the "Send SMS" outcomes because there was no variation in this outcome for high types: no high types sent an SMS.

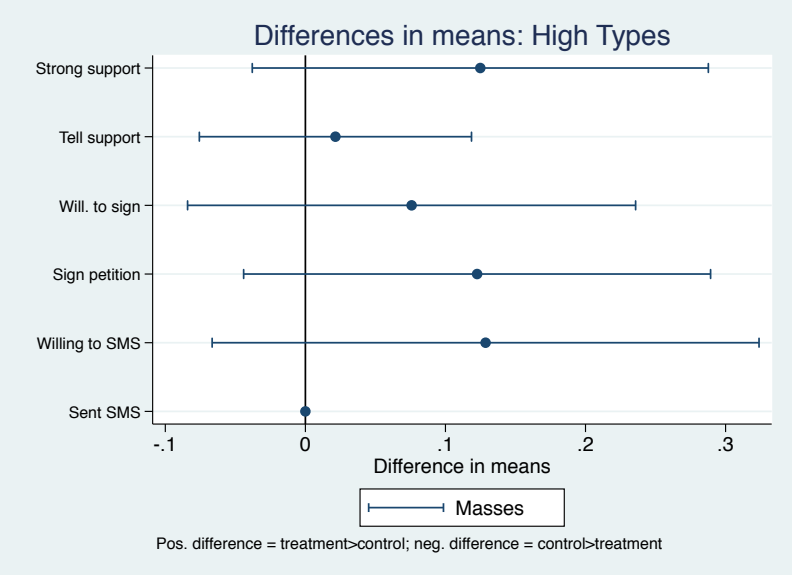
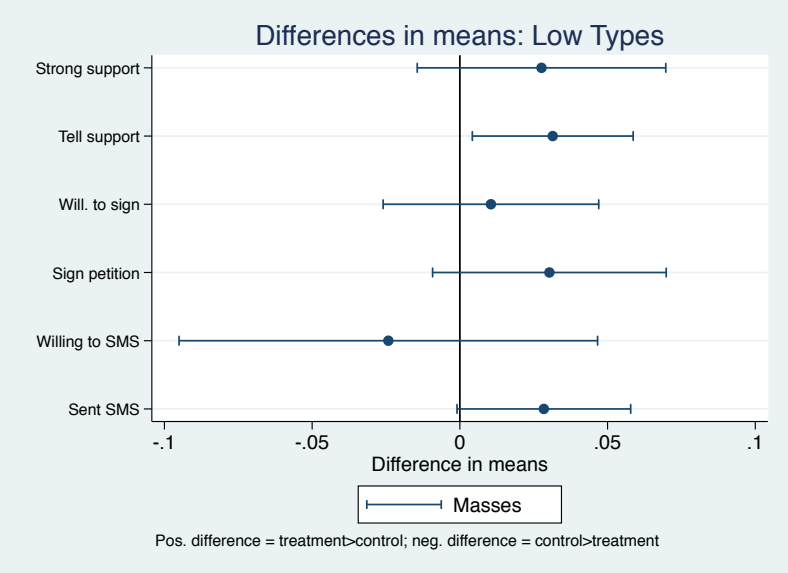


Figure A14: Difference in means tests for mass low types

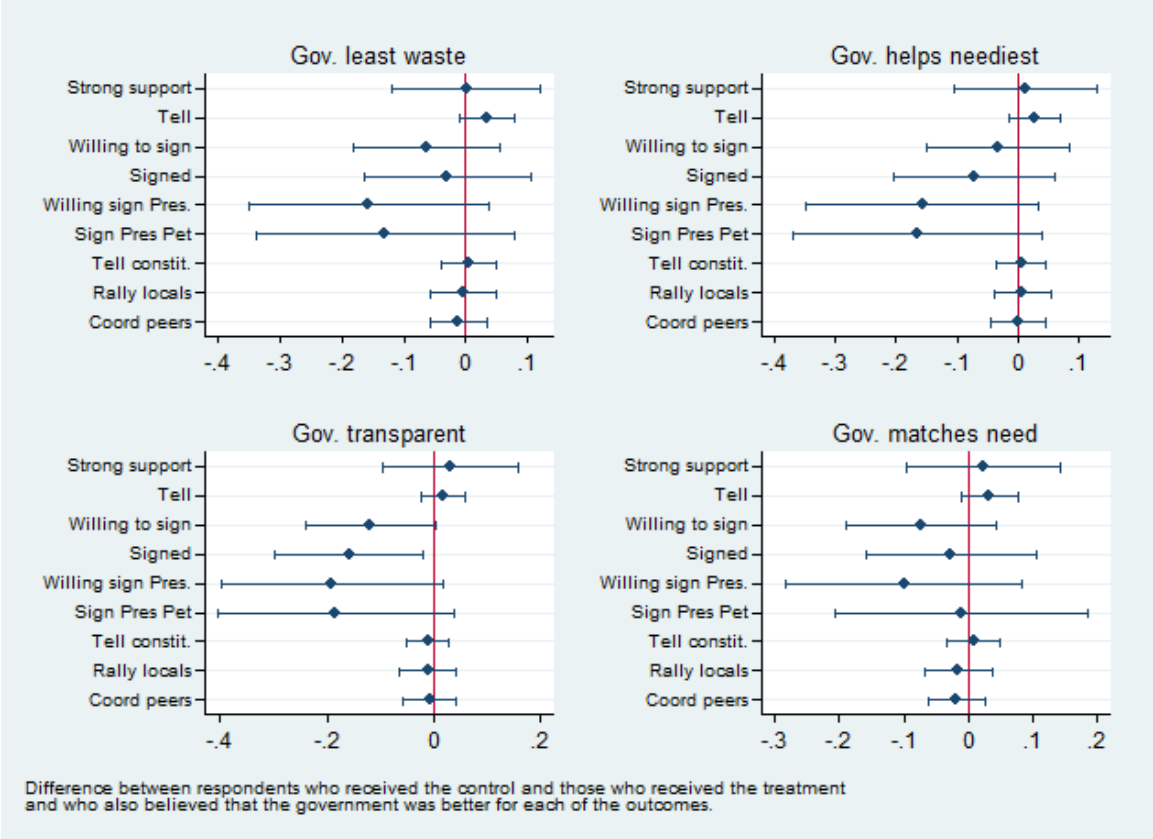
Positive differences mean that foreign aid is preferred to government funding. This graph shows that low types tend to prefer aid but these findings are only statistically significant in one of the six outcomes.



MPs who think government is better vs those who think donors are better

We asked many questions about attitudes toward aid and government to the MPs, including whether members of parliament believe that government vs. aid funding: (1) helps political allies or the most needy, (2) provides the least waste, (3) is more transparent, and (4) best matches needs. In Figure A15 we show the results for the comparisons between those who received the aid treatment vs. the government control for the subgroup who thought the government was better on each of our four dimensions for all the MP's dependent variables. In 35 of the 36 comparisons there is no evidence that those MPs who hold favorable views of government are also more likely to prefer government funding over aid funding. In Tables A7-A10, we provide the regression results for the difference-in-difference comparisons between those who thought government was better and those who thought aid was better and those who got the treatment versus the control by dependent variable. Here again we show that there are no consistent and significant subgroup effects for MPs who believe government is better versus those who believe aid is.

Figure A15: MPs who prefer government, treatment vs control.



Note: Coefficients and 95% confidence intervals calculated from regressions interacting those who find government better and those who find foreign donors better with treatment and control.

Table A7: MPs who think government helps neediest vs those who think donors do

We look at four questions that MPs answered comparing government versus foreign aid donors. We ask if those MPs who think the government is better at any one of these are more likely to prefer the government condition over the donor one. We find no evidence for this. We also looked at regression model with controls and interactions between this question and the treatment/control to see if they showed any consistent and significant difference-in-differences, which we did not see.

MP Support Conditional on Who helps neediest						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to Sign	Signed	Willing to Sign Pres.	Signed Pres. Pet.
Government programs help neediest						
Govt	0.80	0.96	0.89	0.74	0.90	0.76
N	46	46	46	46	21	21
Aid	0.81	0.99	0.82	0.71	0.75	0.63
N	182	182	182	182	93	93
Difference	-0.00	0.03	-0.07	-0.02	-0.15	-0.13
Aid helps neediest						
Govt	0.85	0.97	0.87	0.80	0.82	0.74
N	78	78	78	79	34	34
Aid	0.83	0.98	0.82	0.77	0.76	0.72
N	330	330	330	333	172	172
Difference	-0.01	0.01	-0.05	-0.03	-0.07	-0.02

MP Support Conditional on Who helps neediest			
	Tell Constituents	Rally Locals	Coordinate With Peers
Government programs help neediest			
Govt	0.98	0.98	0.98
N	46	41	46
Aid	0.98	0.97	0.97
N	182	143	182
Difference	0.01	-0.00	-0.01
Aid helps neediest			
Govt	0.99	0.99	1.00

N	78	70	78
Aid	0.98	0.97	0.97
N	330	306	330
Difference	-0.01	-0.02	-0.03***

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column).

Table A8: MPs who think government most effective, least waste vs donors most effective

MP Support Conditional on Who provides least waste						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to Sign	Signed	Willing to Sign Pres.	Signed Pres. Pet.
Government programs provide least waste						
Govt	0.83	0.96	0.81	0.74	0.86	0.77
N	47	47	47	47	22	22
Aid	0.84	0.98	0.77	0.68	0.71	0.62
N	191	191	191	191	97	97
Difference	0.01	0.03	-0.03	-0.07	-0.15*	-0.15
Aid provides least waste						
Govt	0.83	0.97	0.92	0.78	0.90	0.74
N	75	75	75	77	31	31
Aid	0.82	0.99	0.85	0.78	0.76	0.71
N	331	331	331	333	174	174
Difference	-0.00	0.01	-0.07*	-0.00	-0.14**	-0.04

MP Support Conditional on Who provides least waste			
	Tell Constituents	Rally Locals	Coordinate With Peers
Government programs provide least waste			
Govt	0.98	0.98	0.98
N	47	42	47
Aid	0.98	0.99	0.97
N	191	154	191
Difference	0.01	0.01	-0.01
Aid provides least waste			
Govt	0.99	0.97	1.00
N	75	69	75
Aid	0.98	0.97	0.97
N	331	305	331
Difference	-0.00	-0.00	-0.03***

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column).

Table A9: MPs who think government is more transparent vs donors more transparent

MP Support Conditional on Who is more transparent						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to Sign	Signed	Willing to Sign Pres.	Signed Pres. Pet.
Government programs more transparent						
Govt	0.81	0.95	0.93	0.88	0.89	0.78
N	43	43	43	43	18	18
Aid	0.84	0.97	0.80	0.72	0.72	0.63
N	177	177	177	177	92	92
Difference	0.02	0.02	-0.13**	-0.17***	-0.17*	-0.15
Aid more transparent						
Govt	0.83	0.99	0.87	0.73	0.89	0.77
N	76	76	76	78	35	35
Aid	0.82	0.99	0.83	0.76	0.77	0.71
N	366	366	366	368	188	188
Difference	-0.01	0.01	-0.04	0.03	-0.12*	-0.06

MP Support Conditional on Who is more transparent			
	Tell Constituents	Rally Locals	Coordinate With Peers
Government programs more transparent			
Govt	0.98	0.98	0.98
N	43	41	43
Aid	0.97	0.96	0.95
N	177	145	177
Difference	-0.01	-0.02	-0.03
Aid more transparent			
Govt	1.00	0.97	1.00
N	76	67	76
Aid	0.99	0.98	0.98
N	366	335	366
Difference	-0.01	0.01	-0.02***

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column).

Table A10: MPs who think government is better at matching public needs vs donors

MP Support Conditional on Who matches need						
	Strong Support	Tell	Willing to Sign	Signed	Willing to Sign Pres.	Signed Pres. Pet.
Government programs match need						
Govt	0.80	0.94	0.88	0.78	0.83	0.67
N	49	49	49	49	24	24
Aid	0.84	0.97	0.78	0.71	0.73	0.66
N	227	227	227	227	114	114
Difference	0.04	0.03	-0.09*	-0.06	-0.11	-0.01
Aid matches need						
Govt	0.85	0.99	0.89	0.79	0.90	0.81
N	73	73	73	75	31	31
Aid	0.82	0.99	0.85	0.78	0.77	0.70
N	301	301	301	303	158	158
Difference	-0.03	0.01	-0.04	-0.01	-0.13**	-0.10

MP Support Conditional on Who matches need			
	Tell Constituents	Rally Locals	Coordinate With Peers
Government programs match need			
Govt	0.96	0.98	0.98
N	49	46	49
Aid	0.97	0.97	0.96
N	227	192	227
Difference	0.01	-0.01	-0.01
Aid matches need			
Govt	1.00	0.97	1.00
N	73	67	73
Aid	0.99	0.97	0.98
N	301	275	301
Difference	-0.01	0.00	-0.02**

A negative difference means that the proportion of support for projects in the control condition (government) is larger than the proportion under the treatment condition (aid), implying the government condition is preferred to the aid one. Note that if a subject stated s/he did not want to sign the petition (third column) we still presented them the possibility of signing the petition (fourth column).

Tax Payers vs. Non-Tax Payers

Figure A16: Difference in means tests for mass respondents paying taxes.

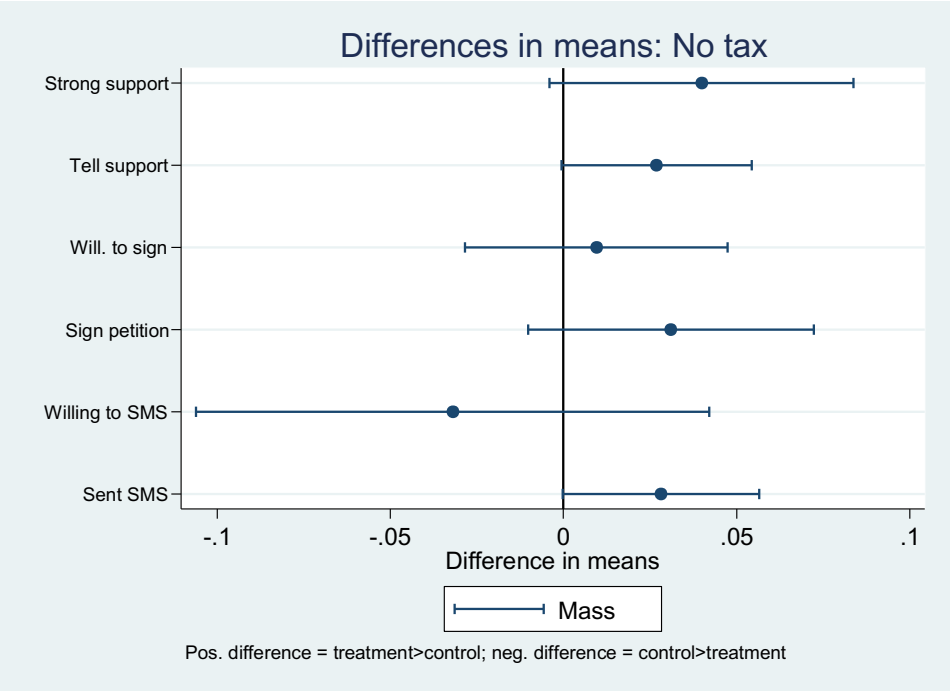
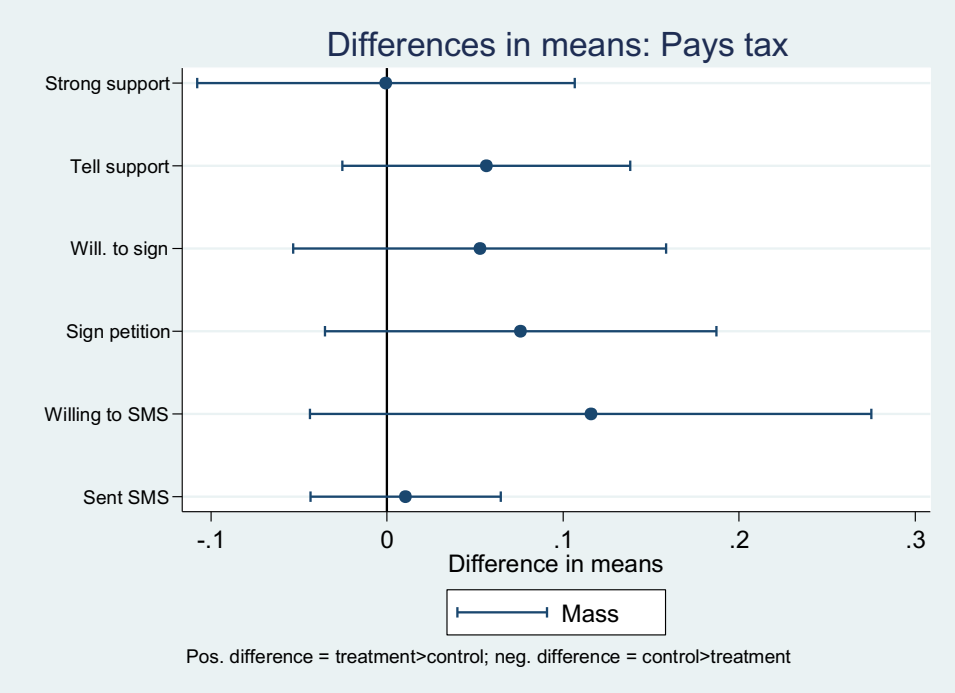


Figure A17: Difference in means tests for mass respondents not paying taxes.



Trust and Conditionality

Table A11: Trust in international institutions Mass vs MP

	Mass	MPs	Difference	t-score
US AID	3.38	3.55	-0.18***	5.38
World Bank	3.34	3.57	-0.23***	7.38
UNDP^	3.29	3.67	-0.38	1.77
ADB^	3.15	4	-0.85***	-32.75

^ Only 6 MPs responded

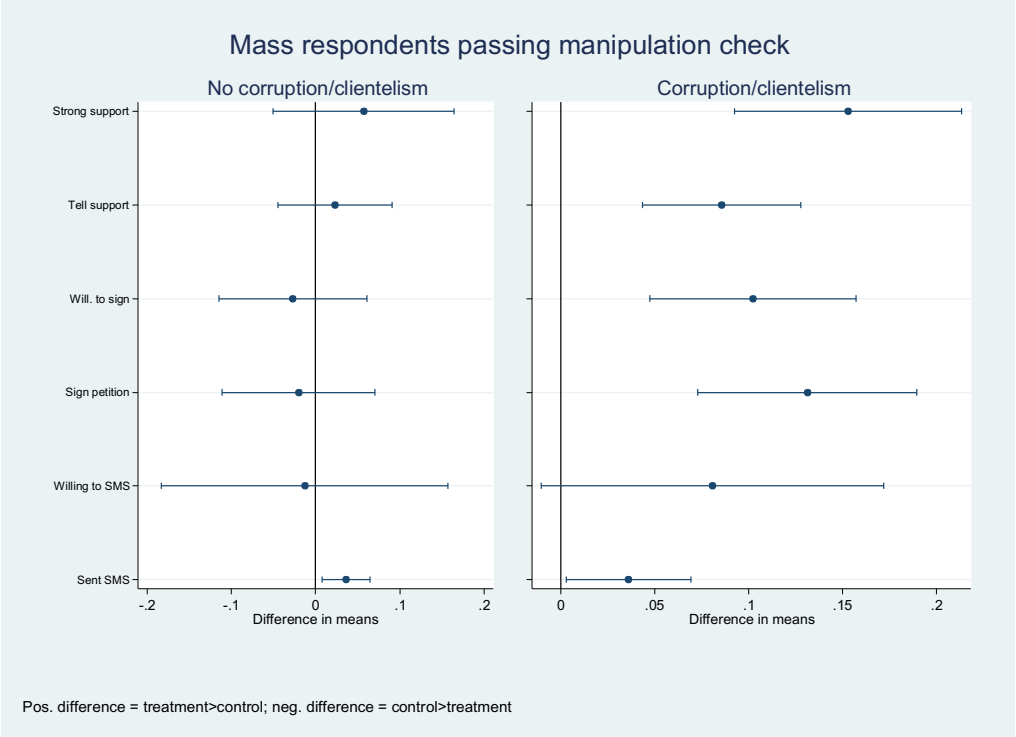
Table A12: Conditionality: Mass vs MP

		Mass	MPs	Difference	t-score
Conditions help (5-point)	All	2.97	2.52	0.45***	7.09
Conditions help (dichotomous)	All	0.52	0.37	0.15***	7.08
Conditions help (5-point)	Treatment	2.97	2.56	0.41***	6.02
Conditions help (dichotomous)	Treatment	0.52	0.38	0.14***	5.88

Note: 5 point variable is 1 = strongly agree conditions hurt; 2 = agree conditions hurt; 3 = agree with neither; 4 = agree conditions help; 5 = strongly agree conditions help. Dichotomous = 1 if 5 point variable was 4 or 5.

Corruption Results for Mass Respondents Passing Manipulation Check

Figure A18: Difference in Means for Corruption/Clientelism Mechanism: Mass respondents passing manipulation check



Determinants of Corruption Perceptions

Among the masses, those in poverty are more likely to perceive corruption, NRM supporters are less likely to perceive corruption, and citizens from the East, West, and Central regions are significantly more likely to see corruption than those from North. For MPs, the only covariate that predicts perceptions of corruption is ethnicity: those MPs who are from the Runyankole-speaking community — co-ethnics with President Museveni — are significantly less likely to perceive corruption. This result may reflect some social desirability bias, but this would work against our argument. The Runyankole did not support government programs more than other regions, however, and therefore any social desirability bias does not appear to drive the key results reported.[4]

Table A13a: Mass Only

Correlation = -0.16

	Not NRM	NRM
No corruption	201 15.1%	597 29.8%
Corruption	1132 84.9%	1404 70.2%

Table A13b: MP only

Correlation = -0.07

	Not NRM	NRM
No corruption	106 59.6%	352 67.4%
Corruption	72 40.5%	170 32.6%

[4] Ethnicity, partisanship, or regional identities could be mediated by perceptions of corruption. Testing for mediation effects requires some strong assumptions, however, and therefore may not be very meaningful. We conducted mediation analysis based on Imai et al. (2011), nonetheless, and note that even though many studies argue ethnicity, region, or partisanship are associated with corruption and clientelism networks (i.e., Wantchekon 2003; Kohut and Stokes 2006.), we find no clear evidence that the effect of these factors is mediated by perceptions of corruption (results available upon request).

Table A14: Logit results predicting perceptions of corruption

	Mass			MP		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Educated	0.013		0.013			
	(0.013)		(0.013)			
Poverty	0.142***		0.134**			
	(0.054)		(0.054)			
Knowledge	-0.023*		-0.023*			
	(0.013)		(0.013)			
Male	-0.003		-0.006		0.396	0.404
	(0.085)		(0.086)		(0.251)	(0.251)
Foreign Media		-0.113	-0.127	0.574	0.551	0.575
		(0.150)	(0.152)	(0.416)	(0.417)	(0.421)
NRM	-0.899***	-0.876***	-0.900***	-0.340	-0.302	-0.263
	(0.095)	(0.094)	(0.096)	(0.258)	(0.260)	(0.262)
Runyankole		-0.053	-0.035	-0.741*	-0.751**	-0.741*
		(0.149)	(0.149)	(0.379)	(0.381)	(0.382)
Nationalist		0.128	0.111	-0.008	-0.018	-0.010
		(0.098)	(0.099)	(0.259)	(0.260)	(0.262)
Minister						-0.465
						(0.363)
Committee						0.132
						(0.544)
East	0.405***	0.367***	0.418***			
	(0.115)	(0.114)	(0.115)			
West	0.787***	0.755***	0.816***			
	(0.119)	(0.138)	(0.139)			
Central	0.795***	0.642***	0.786***			
	(0.127)	(0.115)	(0.129)			
N	3290	3318	3274	344	344	344

Note: minister includes cabinet minister, state minister and deputy speaker. Committee includes committee vice chairperson and committee chairperson.

Multivariate Regression Analysis

To test the robustness of the main corruption results, we run regression analysis that controls for key variables for both the Masses and the MPs. For each set of respondents, we run logit regression predicting the outcomes for which we find significant effects in the main analysis. We do not run analysis on the "Coordinate with Peers" outcomes because only 18 of the 703 observations take the value of 0 on this outcome, which prevents the logit from converging. We predict support for the development project by sub-groups: those who perceive corruption and those who do not. We do this in order to make the results easily comparable to the main analysis. Tables A8-A11 report these results, which largely support the main findings regarding corruption. For the MP analysis, we cluster the standard errors at the MP level (given that each MP is in the regression twice). For the Mass analysis we cluster at the district level. For the masses, four of the five outcomes remain significant once we control for covariates. For these outcomes, those who perceive corruption are significantly more likely to support the aid-funded project. For MPs, we detect a significant effect for those who perceive corruption in terms of willingness to sign the donor petition regardless of the covariates we control for. However, a significant effect for the outcome willingness to sign the petition to the President depends on the covariates that are included in the analysis.

Table A15: Regression Analysis on MPs: Corruption

	Do not perceive corruption				*Perceive corruption*			
	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign Pres.	Willing to Sign Pres.	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign Pres.	Willing to Sign Pres.
Aid Treatment	-0.389	-0.389	-0.644	-0.652	-1.420*	-1.349*	-1.959*	-1.786
	(0.330)	(0.336)	(0.441)	(0.446)	(0.744)	(0.801)	(1.141)	(1.225)
NRM	-0.873*	-0.874*	-0.709	-0.704	0.493	0.399	0.880*	0.807
	(0.467)	(0.468)	(0.440)	(0.445)	(0.565)	(0.610)	(0.519)	(0.541)
Male	-0.474	-0.122	-0.402	-0.086	-0.089	0.346	0.093	0.457
	(0.366)	(0.548)	(0.342)	(0.527)	(0.567)	(1.164)	(0.532)	(0.872)
West	-0.424	-0.413	-0.439	-0.445	-0.893	-1.119*	-0.280	-0.428
	(0.464)	(0.469)	(0.405)	(0.413)	(0.651)	(0.636)	(0.596)	(0.609)
East	-0.701	-0.690	-0.011	-0.004	0.585	0.703	1.198*	1.274*
	(0.490)	(0.490)	(0.442)	(0.442)	(0.757)	(0.801)	(0.665)	(0.666)
North	-0.270	-0.308	0.405	0.365	1.276	1.183	1.656*	1.590*
	(0.576)	(0.570)	(0.533)	(0.528)	(1.110)	(1.200)	(0.852)	(0.927)
Foreign News	-0.169	-0.121	-0.088	-0.037	1.535	1.369	0.398	0.296
	(0.618)	(0.626)	(0.695)	(0.684)	(1.147)	(1.056)	(0.859)	(0.855)
Backbencher		0.516		0.554		1.537**		1.128**
		(0.361)		(0.348)		(0.643)		(0.537)
Constituency MP		-0.456		-0.415		-0.418		-0.419
		(0.527)		(0.508)		(1.215)		(0.909)
Constant	3.221***	2.890***	2.581***	2.225***	2.745***	1.786*	1.979*	1.168
	(0.708)	(0.757)	(0.636)	(0.666)	(0.930)	(1.031)	(1.055)	(1.251)
N	456	456	229	229	239	239	121	121

Note that N's are smaller in the second set of models because each MP was asked to sign two donor petitions (first set of models) and only one petition to the president (the second set of models). Also, the "Backbencher" control variable takes the value of 1 if the MP is not a minister or shadow cabinet member

(shadow cabinet members are opposition MPs) and 0 otherwise. Likewise the “Constituency MP” variable takes a value of 1 if the MP represents a Parliamentary constituency and takes on a value of 0 otherwise (thus 0 on this variable includes Youth, Worker, Army (UPDF), People with Disability, Ex-officio, and District Women MPs; we control for MP type in this way because the modal MP is a “Constituency MP”).

Table A15a: Regression Analysis on MPs who Perceive Corruption

	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign	Willing to Sign Pres.	Willing to Sign Pres.
Aid Treatment	-1.420*	-1.349*	-1.959*	-1.786
	(0.744)	(0.801)	(1.141)	(1.225)
NRM	0.493	0.399	0.880*	0.807
	(0.565)	(0.61)	(0.519)	(0.541)
Male	-0.089	0.346	0.093	0.457
	(0.567)	(1.164)	(0.532)	(0.872)
West	-0.893	-1.119*	-0.28	-0.428
	(0.651)	(0.636)	(0.596)	(0.609)
East	0.585	0.703	1.198*	1.274*
	(0.757)	(0.801)	(0.665)	(0.666)
North	1.276	1.183	1.656*	1.590*
	(1.11)	(1.2)	(0.852)	(0.927)
Foreign News	1.535	1.369	0.398	0.296
	(1.147)	(1.056)	(0.859)	(0.855)
Backbencher		1.537**		1.128**
		(0.643)		(0.537)
Constituency MP		-0.418		-0.419
		(1.215)		(0.909)
Constant	2.745***	1.786*	1.979*	1.168
	(0.93)	(1.031)	(1.055)	(1.251)
N	239	239	121	121

Note that N's are smaller in the second set of models because each MP was asked to sign two donor petitions (first set of models) and only one petition to the president (the second set of models). Also, the "Backbencher" control variable takes the value of 1 if the MP is not a minister or shadow cabinet member (shadow cabinet members are opposition MPs) and 0 otherwise. Likewise the "Constituency MP" variable takes a value of 1 if the MP represents a

Parliamentary constituency and takes on a value of 0 otherwise (thus 0 on this variable includes Youth, Worker, Army (UPDF), People with Disability, Ex-officio, and District Women MPs; we control for MP type in this way because the modal MP is a “Constituency MP”).

Table A16: Regression Analysis on Masses: Corruption

	Do not perceive corruption					*Perceive corruption*				
	Strong Support	Tell	Signed	Willing to SMS	SMS	Strong Support	Tell	Signed	Willing to SMS	SMS
Aid Treatment	-0.287	0.379	-0.273	-0.316	0.765	0.334***	0.412**	0.170	0.250**	0.627*
	(0.280)	(0.476)	(0.295)	(0.244)	(0.740)	(0.124)	(0.195)	(0.133)	(0.105)	(0.355)
NRM	0.456*	0.421	0.472**	0.210	-1.160**	0.146	0.723***	0.308**	0.137	0.036
	(0.246)	(0.333)	(0.203)	(0.181)	(0.462)	(0.147)	(0.147)	(0.128)	(0.101)	(0.273)
Education	0.062**	-0.041	0.058**	0.095***	0.079	0.038***	0.072**	0.106***	0.110***	0.048
	(0.029)	(0.045)	(0.027)	(0.022)	(0.063)	(0.013)	(0.030)	(0.014)	(0.013)	(0.037)
Knowledge	0.009	0.018	0.004	0.077***	-0.064	0.019	0.024	0.001	0.057***	0.019
	(0.035)	(0.042)	(0.029)	(0.022)	(0.078)	(0.016)	(0.035)	(0.018)	(0.021)	(0.032)
Relative Poverty	-0.158	-0.015	0.140	0.465***	0.039	0.087	0.237**	0.123	0.065	-0.160
	(0.097)	(0.166)	(0.099)	(0.136)	(0.250)	(0.087)	(0.097)	(0.088)	(0.073)	(0.139)
Male	0.508***	1.007***	0.276*	0.166	-0.081	-0.135*	-0.118	-0.038	0.207**	0.787***
	(0.172)	(0.338)	(0.156)	(0.156)	(0.395)	(0.078)	(0.138)	(0.079)	(0.086)	(0.279)
Rural	0.207	1.052*	0.511	0.136	0.522	-0.046	0.141	0.424*	0.099	0.216
	(0.252)	(0.618)	(0.357)	(0.274)	(1.376)	(0.151)	(0.360)	(0.240)	(0.167)	(0.458)
West	0.013	0.576	0.248	0.164	15.881***	-0.129	0.928***	0.664***	0.329*	0.899**
	(0.289)	(0.441)	(0.359)	(0.336)	(0.492)	(0.215)	(0.238)	(0.161)	(0.193)	(0.373)
East	0.451	-0.364	0.472	0.258	15.407***	0.836***	0.803***	1.155***	0.764***	0.886***
	(0.376)	(0.404)	(0.459)	(0.370)	(0.644)	(0.257)	(0.290)	(0.262)	(0.249)	(0.331)
North	-0.083	-0.098	-0.003	-0.303	14.813***	-0.135	-0.062	0.450**	-0.008	0.053
	(0.323)	(0.382)	(0.343)	(0.263)	(0.608)	(0.222)	(0.193)	(0.203)	(0.191)	(0.486)
Constant	0.608	1.042	-0.038	-1.941***	-19.110***	0.104	0.305	-0.812**	-1.741***	-5.303***
	(0.714)	(0.910)	(0.543)	(0.534)	(1.514)	(0.352)	(0.567)	(0.381)	(0.379)	(0.619)
N	782	775	786	786	786	2471	2436	2480	2480	2480

Control condition: Calculated vs. Stated

As mentioned in the discussion section of the paper, we omitted explicit reference of a donor in the control condition to signal that the government would sponsor the program. We would later ask respondents in the control condition who they thought was sponsor of the program. This provides us with the necessary information to estimate what support for the program may have looked like if respondents had been told that the government had indeed been the sponsor.

As we have outlined in the paper, estimation of the mean level of support for each group is straightforward, but estimation of the standard errors is comparatively more complicated. We know that the standard error is the standard deviation divided by the square root of N. The standard error for the control will be comprised of the standard error of the respondents who believed the government was the donor and those who believed that it was a foreign donor:

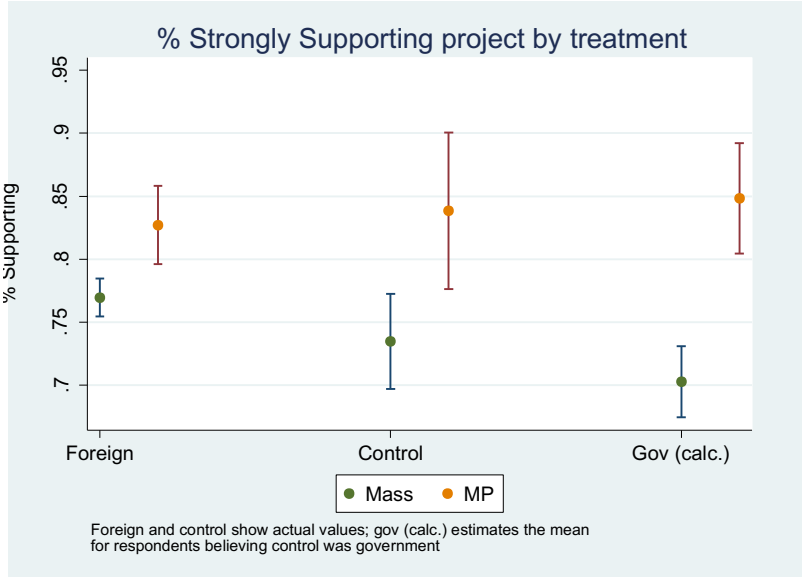
$$SE_{control} = \frac{\frac{S_{Gov}}{\sqrt{(N_{Gov})}} + \frac{S_{For}}{\sqrt{(N_{For})}}}{2}$$

Again we can rearrange the formula to calculate the standard deviation of the government respondents:

$$S_{Gov} = \left(2 * SE_{Control} - \frac{S_{For}}{\sqrt{N_{For}}}\right) * \sqrt{N_{Gov}}$$

Since the standard error is just the standard deviation divided by the square root of N, we can calculate $\frac{S_{Gov}}{\sqrt{N_{Gov}}}$ to get the standard errors of the government respondents.

Figure A19: The Value of the Control if Government was Named



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